

Assignment 02

Submitted By,

Sreejata Bhattacharjee

Roll no: 25CEM5R10



Submitted To,

Dr Narayanarao

Thermal, Microwave and hyperspectral remote sensing

Derivation of Thermal Image using LANDSAT 8/9 Data and estimation of Land Surface Temperature(LST) in QGIS

Gemini pro:

Prompt 1:What is a thermal image in remote sensing

In remote sensing, a **thermal image** (often called a **thermogram**) is a visual representation of the temperature of objects on the Earth's surface.¹

While a standard satellite image captures reflected sunlight (like a photo), a thermal image captures **emitted energy** in the form of heat.² This allows us to "see" things that are invisible to the naked eye, such as underground fires, heat escaping from buildings, or moisture in soil.³

+1

1. The Anatomy of a Thermal Image

A thermal image doesn't actually contain "color" in the traditional sense. It is a data-driven map where each pixel represents a specific temperature measurement.⁴

- **Greyscale Representation:** By default, raw thermal data is often displayed in greyscale.
 - **Lighter/Whiter tones** indicate higher temperatures (more heat energy).
 - **Darker/Black tones** indicate cooler temperatures.
- **Pseudo-Color (False Color):** To make images easier for humans to interpret, software applies a "color palette."
 - **Example:** A "Ironbow" palette might map hot areas to yellow/white, medium heat to red/orange, and cold areas to dark blue or purple.

2. Key Characteristics

Thermal images have unique properties that distinguish them from the optical photos you see on Google Maps:

- **Day and Night Acquisition:** Since the sensor measures heat emitted by the Earth itself, it doesn't need the sun.⁸ A thermal image taken at midnight can look almost as clear as one taken at noon.
- **Coarser Resolution:** Because thermal radiation has longer wavelengths and lower energy than visible light, thermal sensors usually have a "lower resolution." A pixel in an optical image might represent 1 meter, while a thermal pixel might represent 30 to 100 meters.

- **Atmospheric Windows:** To get a clear image, satellites must look through "windows" in the atmosphere where water vapor doesn't block the heat.¹⁰ These are typically the **3–5 μm** and **8–14 μm** ranges.

+1

3. What Does the Image Actually Show?

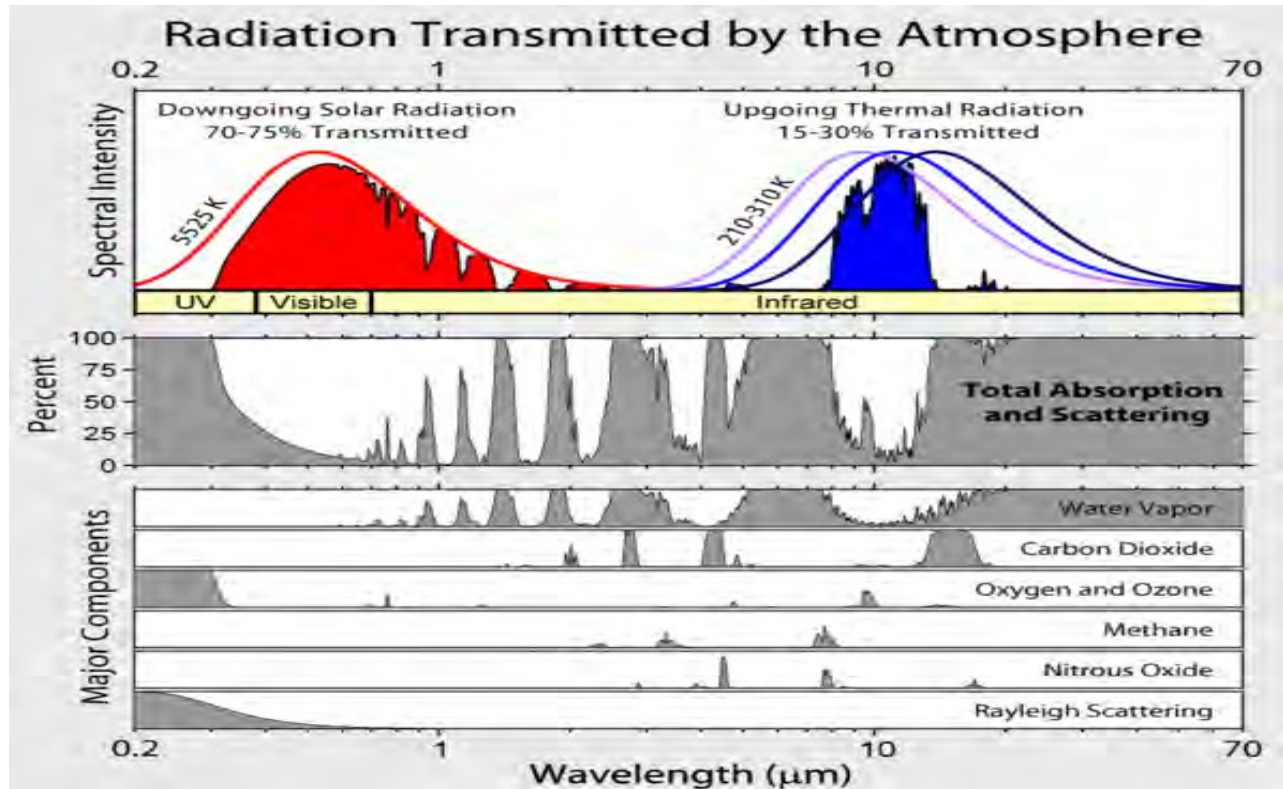
It is important to understand that a thermal image shows **Radiant Temperature**, which can be slightly different from the actual physical (kinetic) temperature.

This is due to **Emissivity (ϵ)**. Different materials emit heat differently:

- **Water** is a "near-perfect" emitter ($\epsilon \approx 0.99$), so its thermal image is very accurate.
- **Polished Metals** have very low emissivity ($\epsilon \approx 0.10$). In a thermal image, a hot metal roof might look "cold" because it is reflecting the cold sky rather than emitting its own heat.

4. Comparison: Optical vs. Thermal

Feature	Optical Image	Thermal Image
Source	Reflected Sunlight	Emitted Heat
Primary Use	Mapping, Land Cover	Temperature, Energy, Moisture
Night Use	No (requires flash/lights)	Yes (excellent)
Best Feature	High Detail/Color	Detects invisible heat patterns



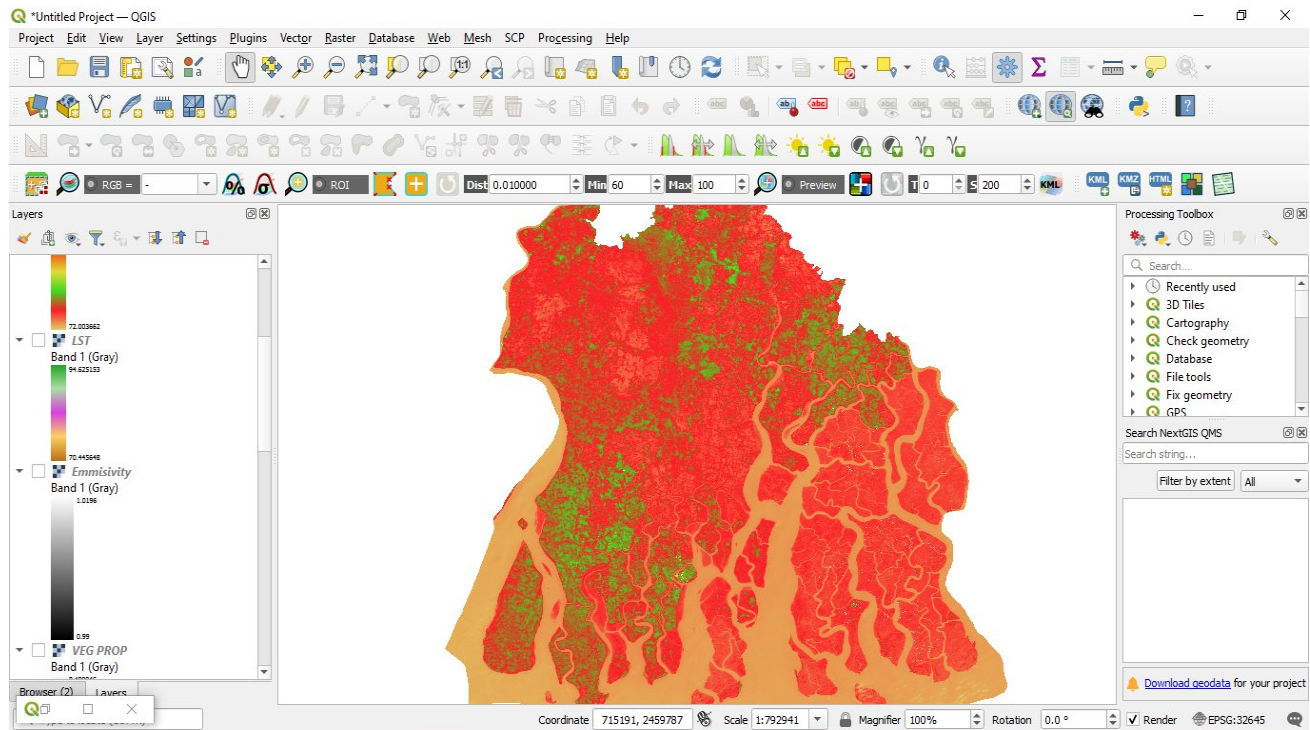
Atmospheric Radiation

An object's **internal kinetic heat** is converted to **radiant energy** (often called external or apparent energy).

The electromagnetic radiation exiting an object is called **radiant flux** and is measured in watts. The concentration of the amount of radiant flux exiting (emitted from) an object relates to its radiant temperature (T_{rad}).

There is usually a high positive correlation between the true kinetic temperature of an object (T_{kin}) and the amount of radiant flux radiated from the object (T_{rad}). Therefore, we can utilize radiometers placed some distance from the object to measure its radiant temperature which correlates well with the object's true kinetic temperature.

- **This is the basis of thermal infrared remote sensing.** Yet, the correlation (and the resulting relationship) is not perfect, with the remote measurement of the radiant temperature always being slightly less than the true kinetic temperature of the object. This is due to a thermal property called **emissivity**.



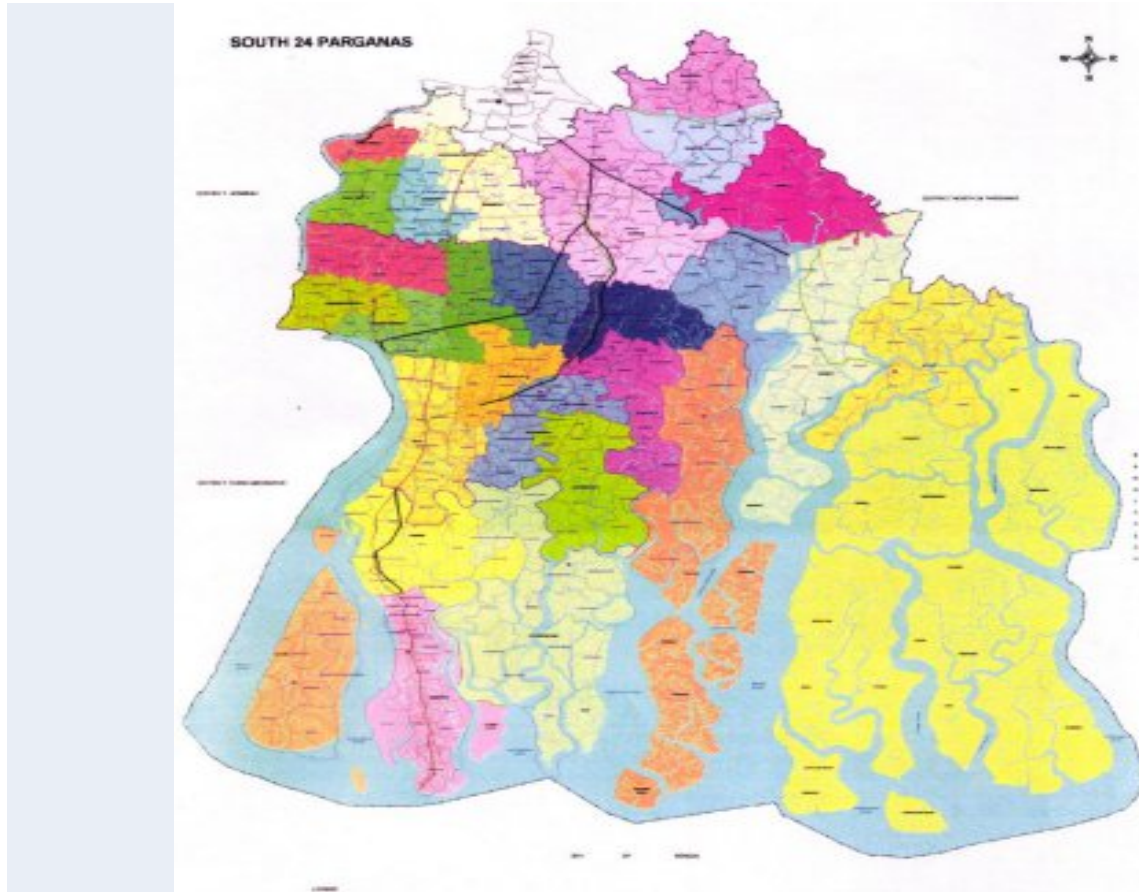
Import of District to QGIS

- A **blackbody** is a theoretical construct that absorbs all the radiant energy striking it and radiates energy at the maximum possible rate per unit area at each wavelength for any given temperature.
- No objects in nature are true blackbodies, however, we may think of the Sun as approximating a 6,000 °K blackbody and the Earth as a 300 °K blackbody.
- If we pointed a sensor at a blackbody we would be able to record quantitative information about the total amount of radiant energy in specific wavelengths exiting the object and the dominant wavelength of the object. In order to do this, we utilize some important physical laws: **the Planck law, the Stefan-Boltzmann law and Wein's displacement law.**

The real world is not composed of radiating blackbodies.

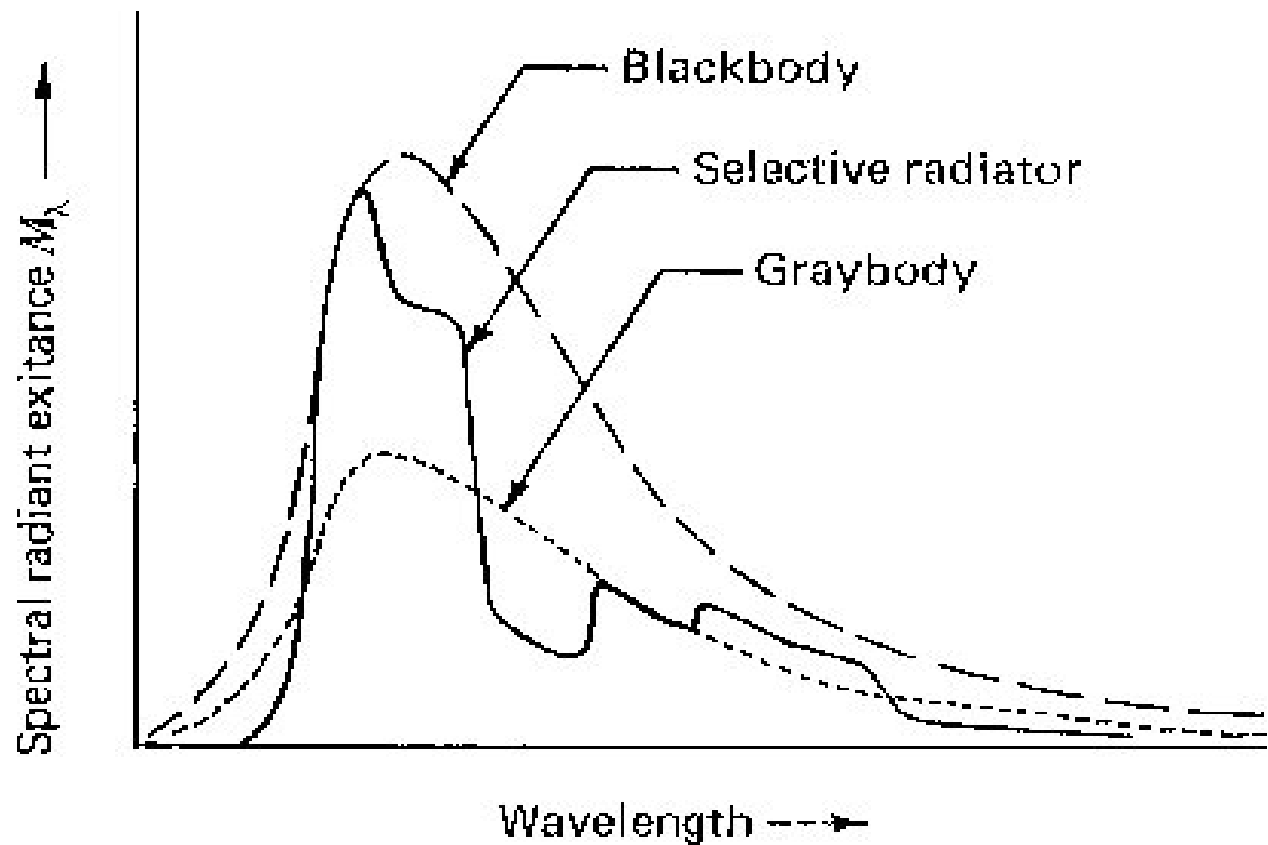
Rather it is composed of selectively radiating bodies such as rocks, soil, and water that emit only a fraction of the energy emitted from a blackbody at the same temperature.

Emissivity, ϵ , is the ratio between the radiant flux exiting a real-world selective radiating body (F_r) and a blackbody at the same temperature (F_b)

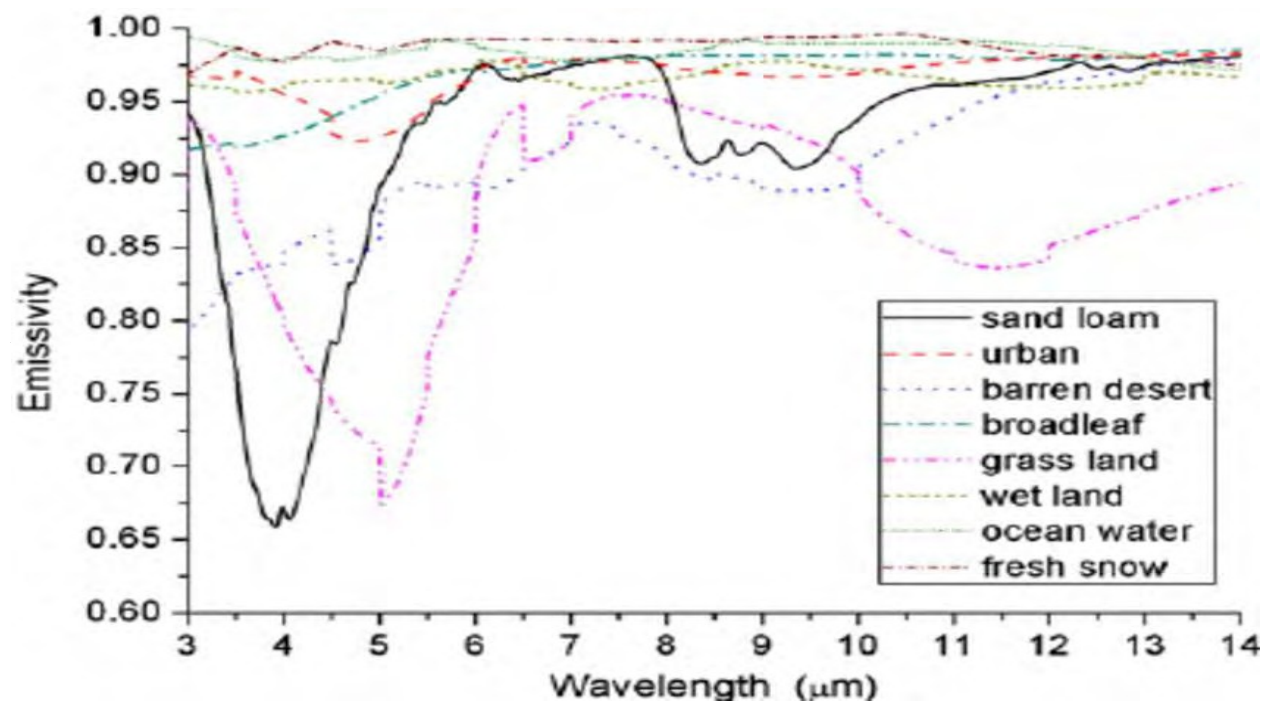


Map layout of SOUTH 24 PARGANAS

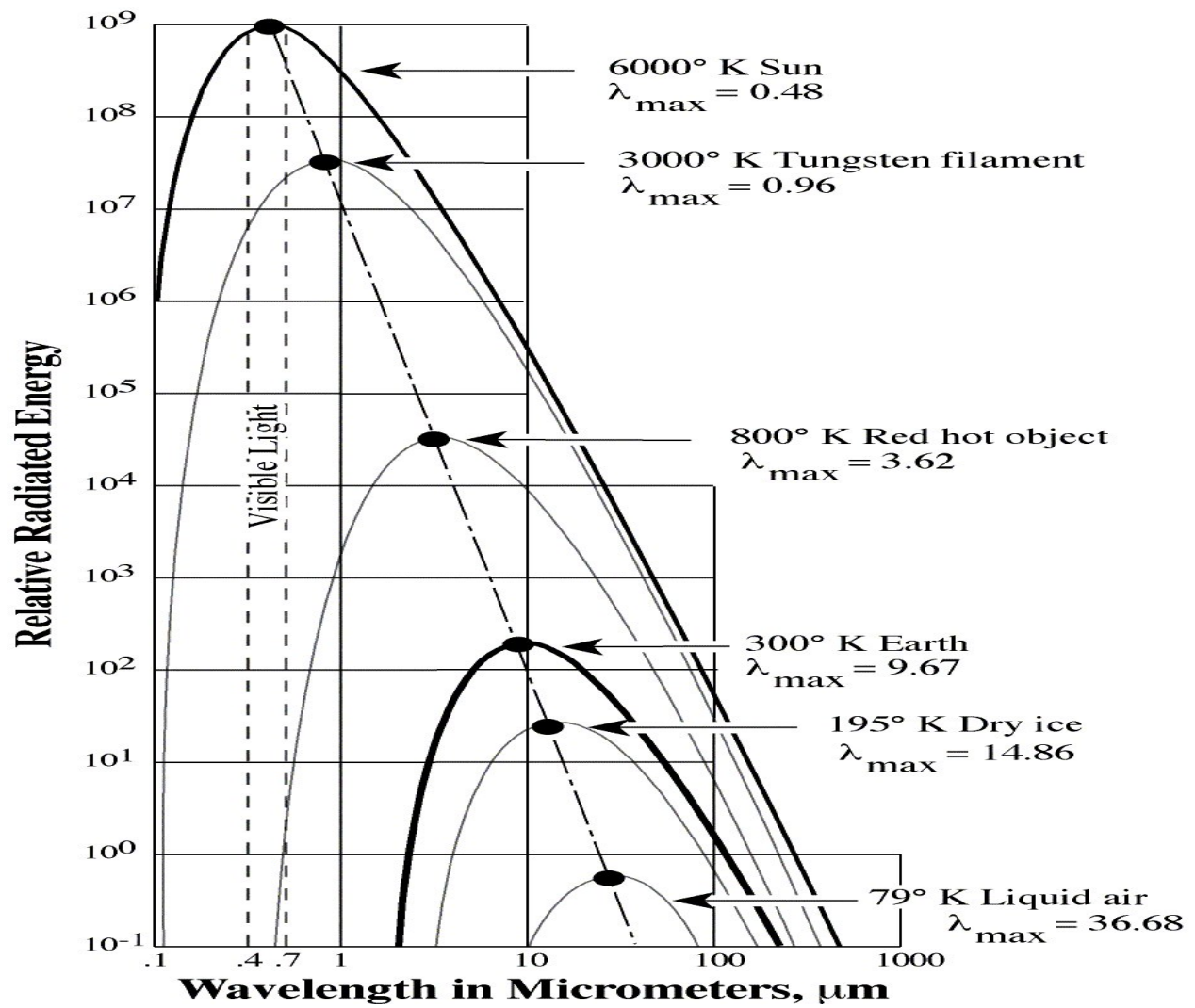
- All selectively radiating bodies have emissivities ranging from 0 to <1 that fluctuate depending upon the wavelengths of energy being considered.
- A graybody outputs a constant emissivity that is less than one at all wavelengths.
- Some materials like distilled water have emissivities close to one (0.99) over the wavelength interval from 8 - 14 μm .
- Others such as polished aluminum (0.08) and stainless steel (0.16) have very low emissivities.



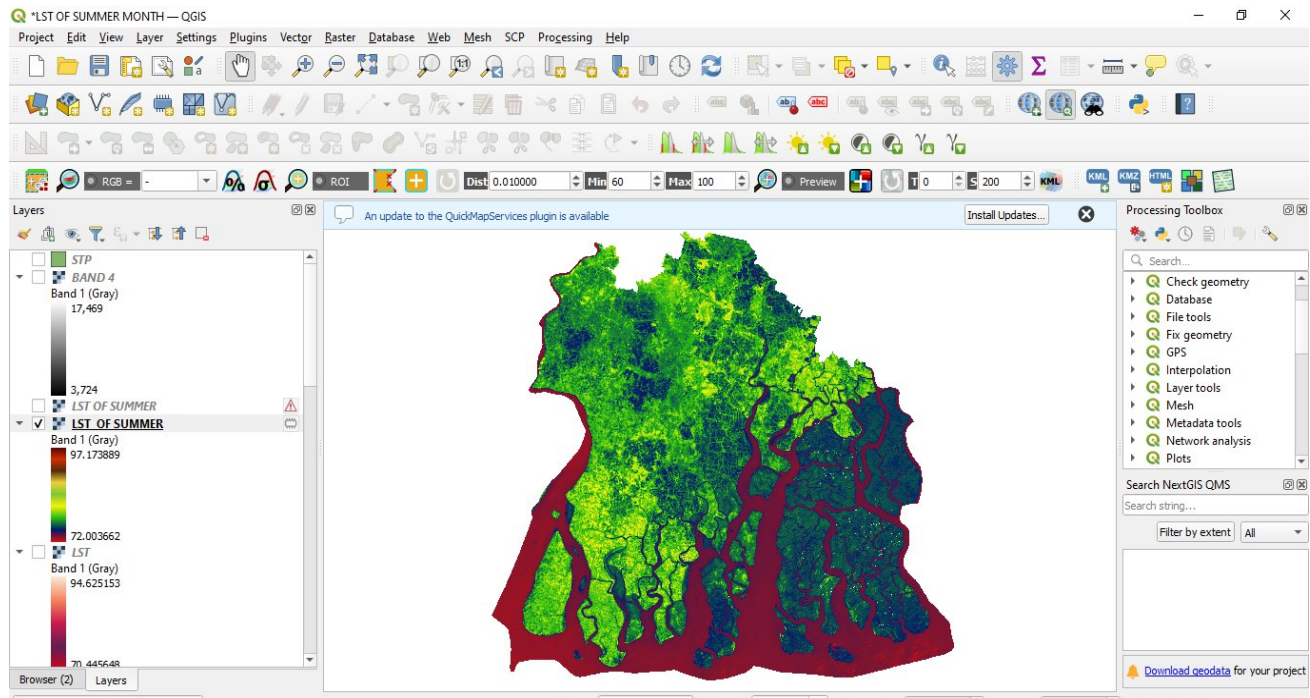
Display of spectral radiant exitance curves vs Wavelength



Display of spectral radiant exitance curves and Emissivity vs Wavelength



Display of Relative radiated energy Vs Wavelength

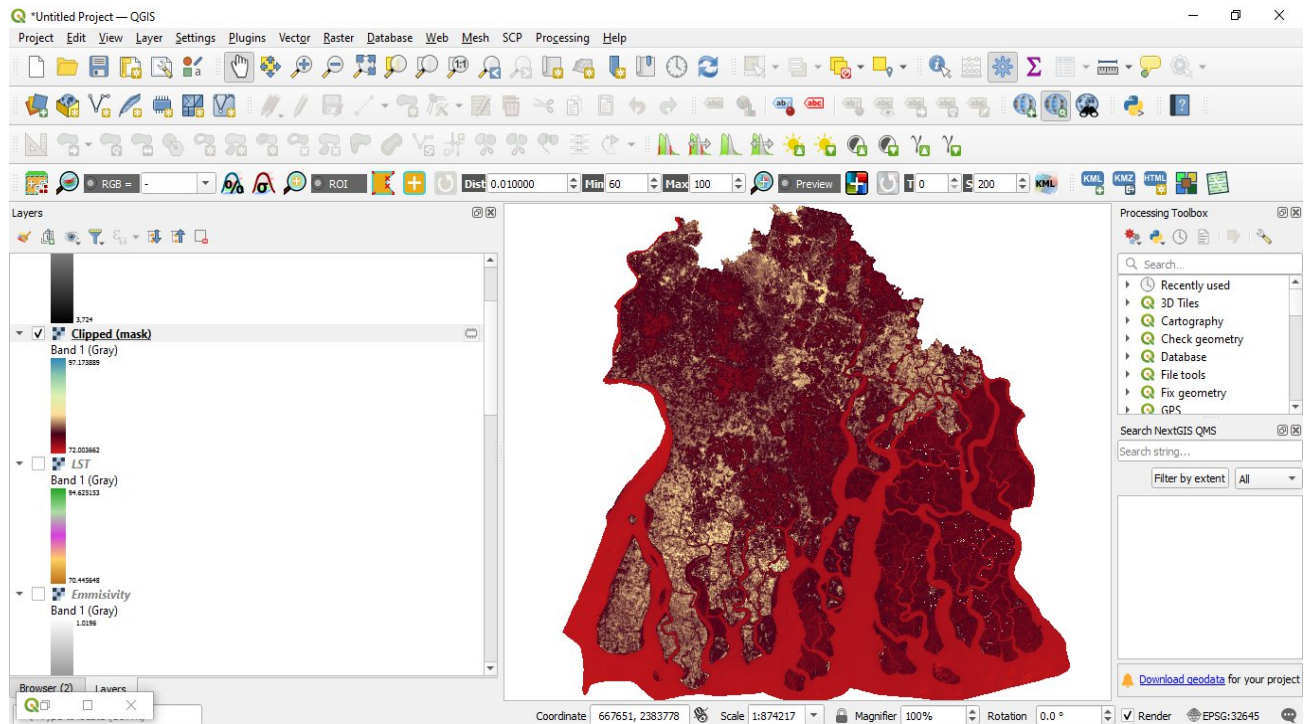


Changing the symbology of the LST Image

The dominant wavelength provides information about which part of the thermal spectrum we might want to sense in.

For example, if we are looking for **800 °K forest fires** that have a dominant wavelength of approximately **3.62 μm** then the most appropriate remote sensing system might be a **3-5 μm** thermal infrared detector.

- If we are interested in **soil, water, and rock with ambient temperatures on the earth's surface of 300 °K** and a dominant wavelength of **9.66 μm** , then a thermal infrared detector operating in the **8 - 14 μm** region might be most appropriate.



Import of district of SOUTH 24 PARGANAS Map to QGIS

Speaking about resolution

There is an inverse relationship between having high spatial resolution and high radiometric resolution when collecting thermal infrared data.

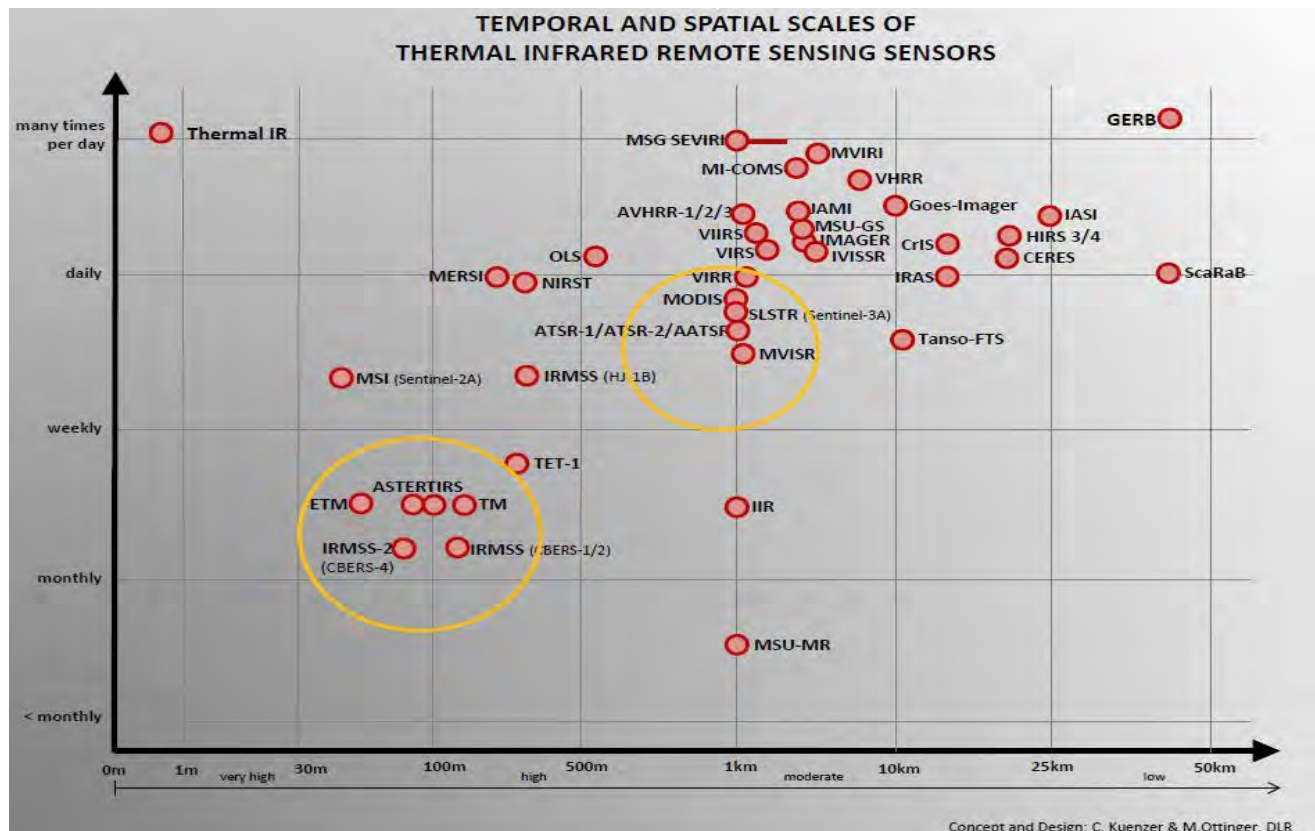
The larger the radiometer instantaneous-field-of-view, the longer the dwell time that an individual detector can view the terrain within the IFOV during a single sweep of the mirror. Thus a larger IFOV provides good radiometric resolution which is the ability to discriminate between very small differences in radiant energy exiting the terrain element (also provides good signal to noise ratio).

At the same time, the larger the IFOV, the poorer the ability to resolve fine spatial detail.

Important to obtain a strong thermal infrared signal

The inverse-square law states that the intensity of radiation emitted from a point source varies as the inverse square of the distance between source and receiver.

Thus, we can obtain a more intense, strong thermal infrared signal if we can get the remote sensor detector as close to the ground as practical.



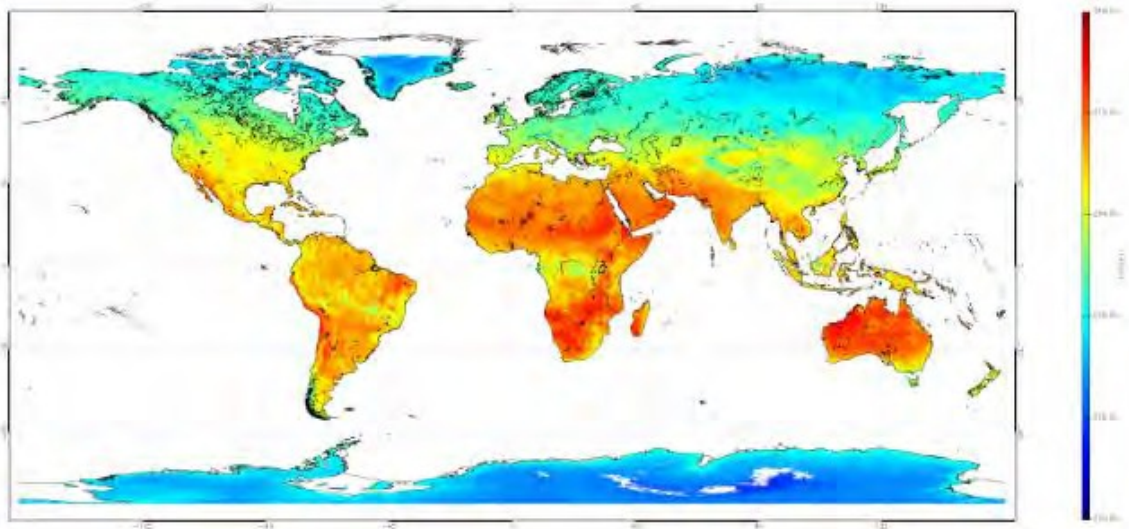
Graphical representation of temporal and spatial scales of TIR Sensors

Most thermal infrared remote sensing investigations try to maintain good radiometric and spatial resolution by:

1. selecting a fairly large IFOV such as 2.5 mrad, and
2. flying at a relatively low altitude to obtain smaller pixel sizes.
3. But at lower altitudes, the high spatial resolution may be outweighed by the fact that more flight lines are required to cover the area compared to more efficient coverage at higher altitudes with larger pixels.

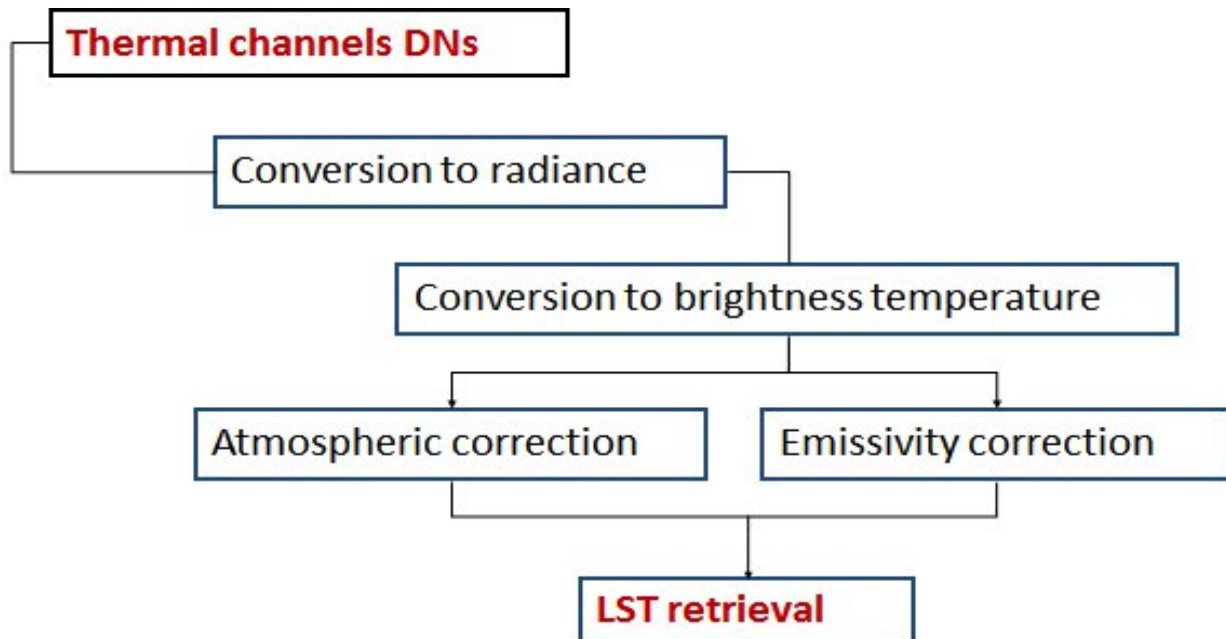
Performance	Parameters	SLSTR	AATSR & ATSR-1/2
Swaths	Nadir view	1 400 km	500 km
	Dual view	740 km	500 km
Global coverage revisit time	1 S/C (dual view)	1.9 days	7-14 days
		0.9 days	-
		1 day	7-14 days
		0.5 days	-
SSI at SSP (km)		0.5 km VIS-SWIR 1 km IR-fire	1 km
Spectral channels centre λ (μm)	VIS (not ATSR-1):	0.555; 0.659; 0.865;	0.555; 0.659; 0.865;
	SWIR:	1.375; 1.610; 2.25;	1.610;
	MWIR/TIR:	3.74; 10.85; 12;	3.74; 10.85; 12;
	Fire-1/2:	3.74; 10.85	-
Radiometric resolution	VIS ($\alpha=0.5\%$):	SNR > 20	SNR > 20
	SWIR ($\alpha=0.5\%$):	SNR > 20	SNR > 20
	MWIR (T=270K):	Ne Δ T < 80 mK	Ne Δ T < 80 mK
	TIR (T=270K):	Ne Δ T < 50 mK	Ne Δ T < 50 mK
	Fire-1 (<500 K):	Ne Δ T < 1K	
	Fire-2 (<400 K):	Ne Δ T < 0.5 K	
Radiometric accuracy	VIS-SWIR:	< 2% (BOL)	
	($\alpha=2-100\%$)	< 5% (EOL)	< 5%
	MWIR-TIR		
	(265-310K):	< 0.1 k (goal)	< 0.1 K
	Fire (<500k):	< 3 K	
Life time (in orbit)		7.5 years	AATSR: 5 year design, operative since 2002; ATSR-2: 3 year design, operating from 1995 to 2008; ATSR-1: 3 year design, operating from 1991 to 2000

Comparison of sensors parameters for SLSTR AND AASTR

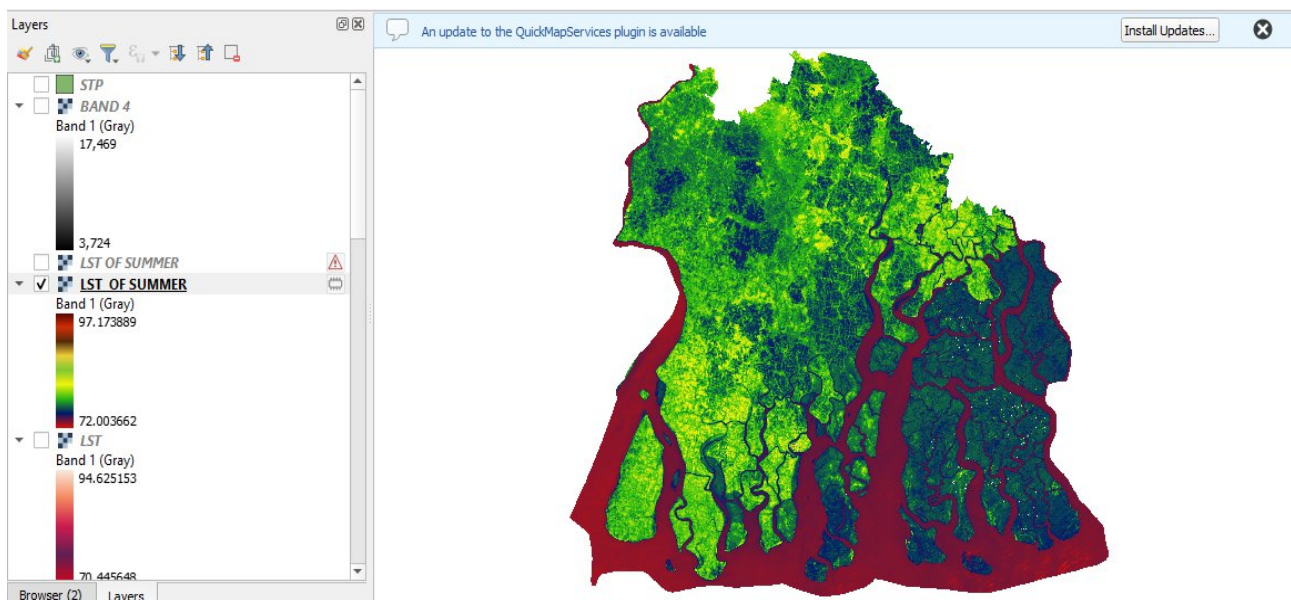


Information from Sentinel-3A's radiometer, which measures radiation emitted from Earth's surface, reveal how the temperature of Earth's land changes between July and November 2016.

Road map to estimate Land Surface Temperature

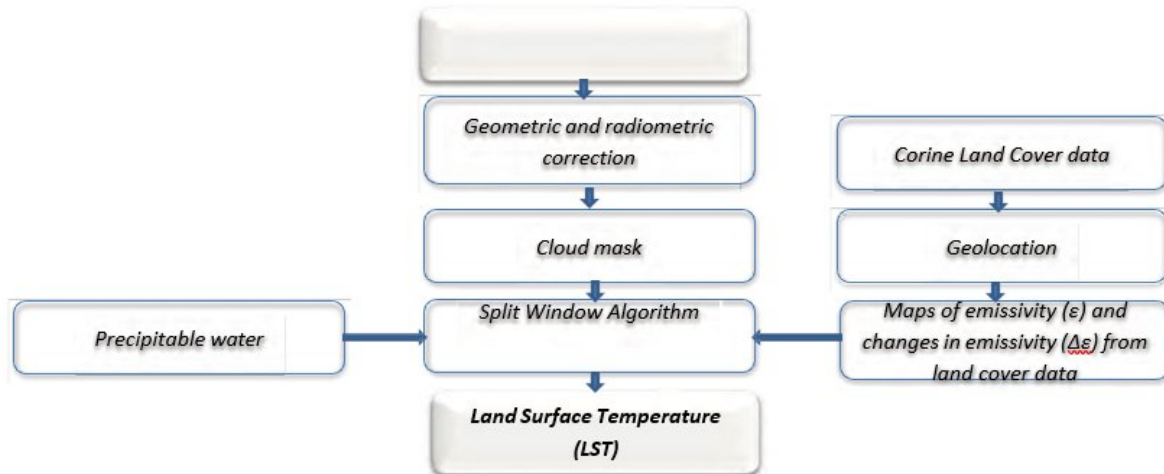


Overall LST accuracy: ± 2 Kelvin



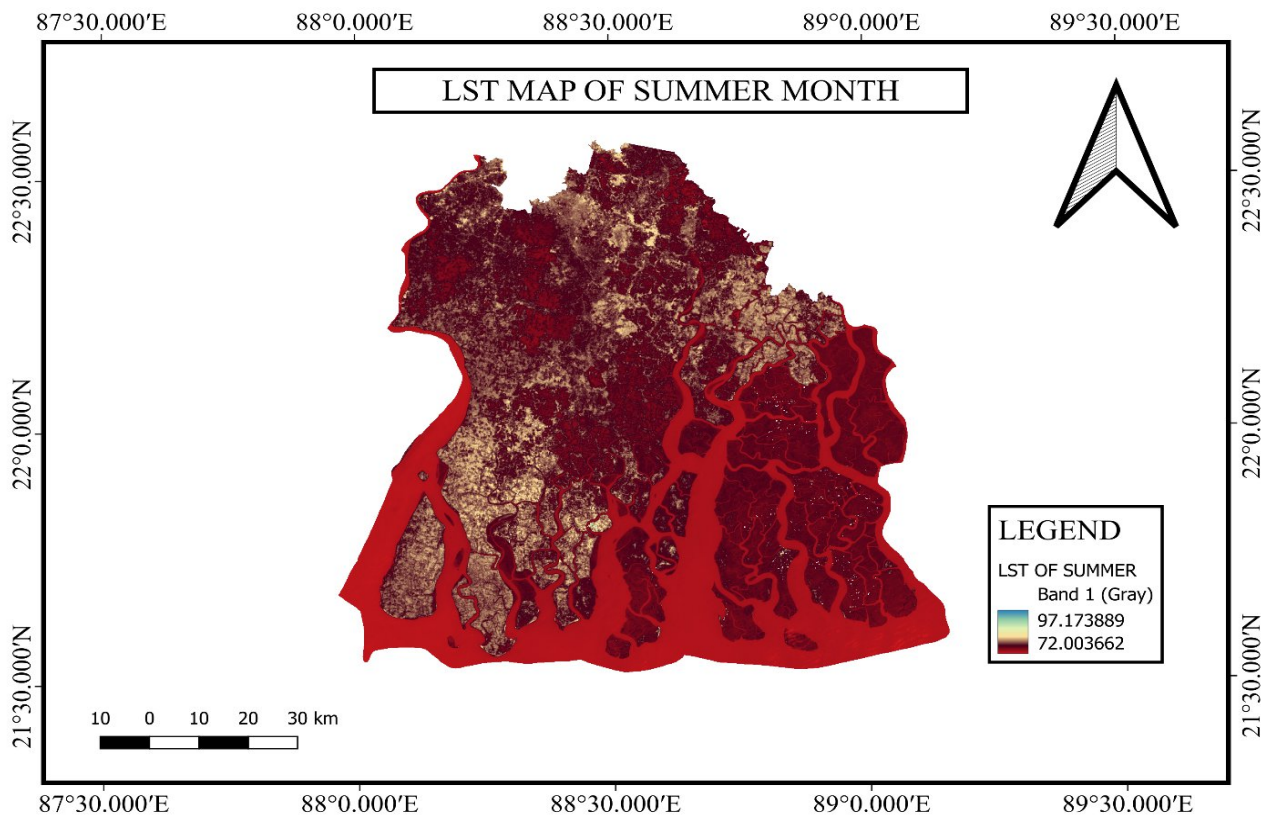
Display of LST image and LST Value in summer

Long term trends in LST



$$LSTtrend(\%) = \frac{LST(2015) - LST(1995)}{LST(1995)} \times 100$$

Long term trends in LST estimation



LST Map of Summer month

Prompt 2: How we can analyze LST for a given district according to seasonal changes (summer and winter)?

Analyzing the seasonal variation of Land Surface Temperature (LST) requires a systematic geospatial approach, typically using satellite imagery like **Landsat 8/9** or **MODIS**.¹ For a district like South 24 Parganas, the analysis involves comparing datasets from two distinct windows: **Summer (Pre-Monsoon: March–May)** and **Winter (January–February)**.

1. Data Selection & Tools

- **Satellite Data:**
 - * **Landsat 8/9 (Level 2):** Best for detailed district-level study (30m resolution).
 - **MODIS (MOD11A2):** Better for observing daily/weekly trends over large areas, though at lower resolution (1km).²
- **Software:** You can use **Google Earth Engine (GEE)** for cloud-based processing or **ArcGIS/QGIS** for desktop-based manual analysis.³

2. Step-by-Step Analysis Workflow

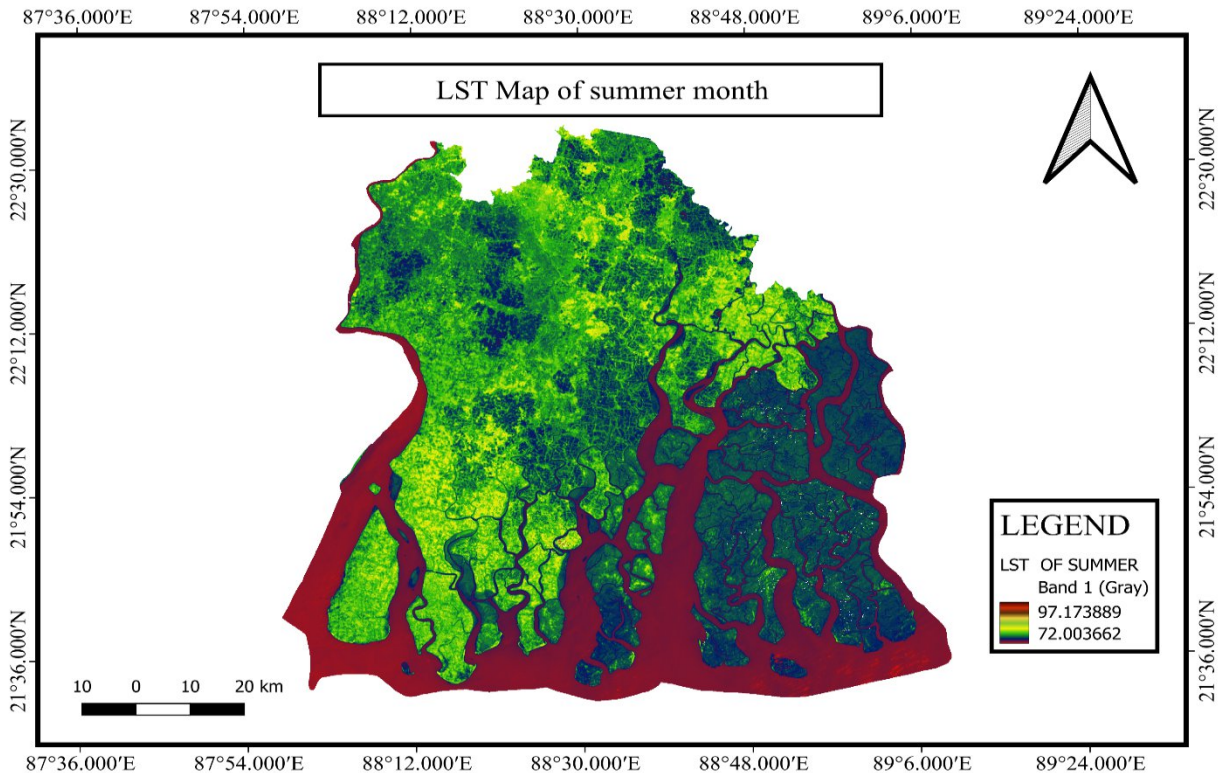
To get from a raw satellite image to a seasonal comparison map, follow these technical steps:

Phase A: Pre-Processing

1. **Image Selection:** Download or filter images with **<10% cloud cover** for the specific months of summer and winter.
2. **Radiometric Correction:** Convert Digital Numbers (DN) to **Top of Atmosphere (TOA) Radiance**.
 - *Note: If using Landsat Level 2 "Science Products," this is often pre-calculated.*

Phase B: Calculating Indices

1. **Brightness Temperature (BT):** Convert the thermal band radiance into Kelvin using the satellite's thermal constants (⁴ K_1 and ⁵ K_2).⁶
2. **NDVI (Vegetation Index):** Calculate $NDVI = \frac{(NIR - Red)}{(NIR + Red)}$. This is crucial because vegetation significantly cools the surface.
3. **Land Surface Emissivity (ϵ):** Use the NDVI to estimate how efficiently the surface emits heat.⁷ Water, forests, and concrete all have different "emissivity" values.



LST Map of South 24 Parganas in summer month

Phase C: The LST Formula

Apply the final LST equation to convert Brightness Temperature into actual Surface Temperature in Celsius:

$$LST = \frac{BT}{1 + \left(\lambda \cdot \frac{BT}{\rho} \right) \cdot \ln(\epsilon)}$$

Where λ is the wavelength of emitted radiance and $\rho = 1.438 \times 10^{-2} \text{ mK}$.

3. Interpreting the Comparison

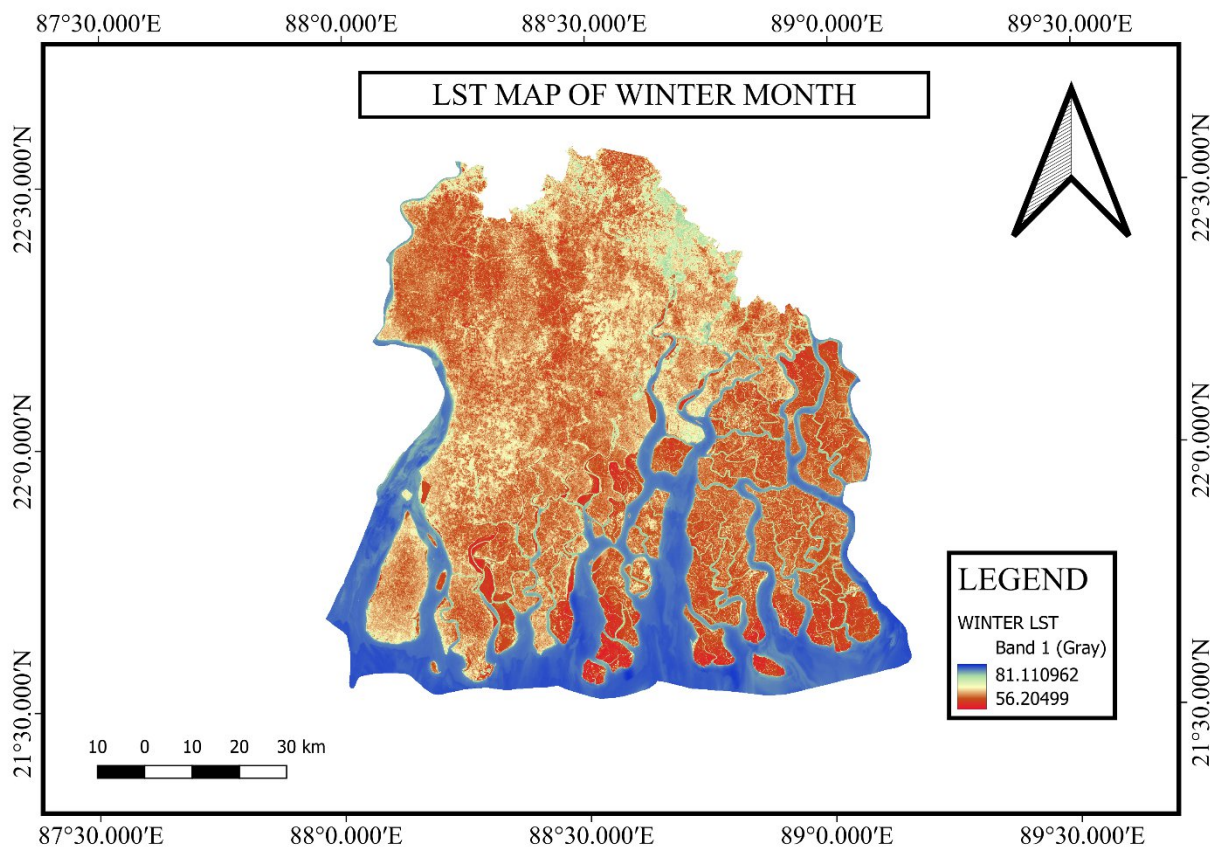
Once you have your two maps (Summer vs. Winter), look for these specific indicators:

- **ΔLST (Temperature Difference):** Create a "Difference Map" by subtracting the Winter LST from the Summer LST ($LST_{sum} - LST_{win}$). This highlights which parts of the district (like urban Baruipur) heat up the most.
- **LULC Correlation:** Overlay a Land Use/Land Cover (LULC) map. You will typically find:
 - **Urban/Built-up:** High LST in summer; retains heat longer in winter.¹¹
 - **Mangroves/Forests:** Stable, lower LST due to "Evapotranspirative cooling."
 - **Agricultural Land:** High LST in summer (dry fallow soil); low LST in winter (moist/cropped soil).

4. Why this matters for South 24 Parganas

In this specific district, the **Sundarbans** act as a natural "heat sink." Analyzing the seasonal LST helps in:

- **Disaster Management:** Identifying blocks prone to severe heatwaves.
- **Urban Planning:** Monitoring how the expansion of Kolkata's suburbs is creating new "Urban Heat Islands."
- **Ecology:** Tracking how rising temperatures might be stressing the mangrove ecosystem.



LST Map of South 24 Parganas of Winter Month

Prompt 3: Give the entire process and formulae to calculate LST

Calculating Land Surface Temperature (LST) is a multi-step process that converts the raw Digital Numbers (DN) of satellite imagery into physical temperature units ($^{\circ}\text{C}$).

The following guide uses **Landsat 8/9** as the standard, as it is the most common data source for district-level analysis in South 24 Parganas.

Step 1: Top of Atmosphere (TOA) Spectral Radiance

The raw pixels (DN) must first be converted into spectral radiance (L_{λ}), which is the amount of radiation hitting the satellite sensor.

Formula:

$$L_{\lambda} = M_L \cdot Q_{cal} + A_L$$

- M_L : Band-specific multiplicative rescaling factor (from Metadata).
- A_L : Band-specific additive rescaling factor (from Metadata).
- Q_{cal} : The raw pixel value (Band 10).

Step 2: Top of Atmosphere Brightness Temperature (BT)

Brightness temperature is the temperature of a blackbody that would emit the same amount of radiation as observed by the satellite.

Formula:

$$BT = \frac{K_2}{\ln \left(\frac{K_1}{L_{\lambda}} + 1 \right)} - 273.15$$

- K_1 and K_2 : Thermal conversion constants (found in the MTL metadata file).
- **Result:** Temperature in Celsius ($^{\circ}\text{C}$).

Step 3: Normalized Difference Vegetation Index (NDVI)

LST is heavily influenced by vegetation. We need NDVI to calculate the "emissivity" (how well the surface releases heat) in the next step.

Formula:

$$NDVI = \frac{\text{Band 5 (NIR)} - \text{Band 4 (Red)}}{\text{Band 5 (NIR)} + \text{Band 4 (Red)}}$$

Step 4: Proportion of Vegetation (P_v)

This step estimates the density of vegetation in each pixel.

Formula:

$$P_v = \left(\frac{NDVI - NDVI_{min}}{NDVI_{max} - NDVI_{min}} \right)^2$$

- $NDVI_{max}$ and $NDVI_{min}$: The maximum and minimum values found in your NDVI map.

Step 5: Land Surface Emissivity (ϵ)

Emissivity is the ratio of energy radiated by a surface to energy radiated by a blackbody. Surfaces like concrete have different emissivity than a mangrove forest.

Formula:

$$\epsilon = 0.004 \cdot P_v + 0.986$$

- *Note: 0.986 is a standard correction value for land surfaces.*

Step 6: Final Land Surface Temperature (LST)

This final formula combines the Brightness Temperature and Emissivity to give the true "skin" temperature of the earth.

Formula:

$$LST = \frac{BT}{1 + \left(\lambda \cdot \frac{BT}{\rho} \right) \cdot \ln(\epsilon)}$$

- λ : Wavelength of emitted radiance (approx. **10.89** for Landsat 8 Band 10).
- ρ : A constant ($h \cdot c / \sigma$) equal to **14388** $\mu\text{m K}$.
- ϵ : Emissivity calculated in Step 5.

Summary Table for Landsat 8 (Band 10)

Parameter	Metadata Keyword / Value
Radiance Mult (M_L)	RADIANCE_MULT_BAND_10 (usually 0.0003342)
Radiance Add (A_L)	RADIANCE_ADD_BAND_10 (usually 0.1)
K_1 Constant	K1_CONSTANT_BAND_10 (approx. 774.88)
K_2 Constant	K2_CONSTANT_BAND_10 (approx. 1321.07)

Prompt 4: How is the variation of land surface temperature for south 24 parganas from summer to winter months

In South 24 Parganas, the Land Surface Temperature (LST) undergoes a significant seasonal shift, driven by the district's unique geography—ranging from the urbanized northern fringes near Kolkata to the vast mangrove forests and tidal networks of the Sundarbans in the south.

Unlike air temperature, **LST** (the "skin" temperature of the earth) is highly sensitive to land cover, such as concrete, water, or dense vegetation.¹

1. Summer (Pre-Monsoon): March to May

This is the period of peak thermal intensity. The LST reaches its maximum during these months due to high solar radiation and low soil moisture.

- **Temperature Range:** LST typically ranges from **32°C to 38°C**, though artificial surfaces (built-up areas) can soar above **40°C**.
- **Spatial Variation:**
 - **Urban Hotspots:** Areas like Baruipur and the northern borders near Kolkata show the highest LST due to the **Urban Heat Island (UHI)** effect.
 - **Agricultural Land:** Harvested or fallow fields act as "bare soil," which absorbs significant heat, often recording LST nearly as high as urban zones.
 - **The Sundarbans:** The southern mangrove regions stay significantly cooler (often **4-6°C lower** than urban areas) due to dense canopy shading and high evapotranspiration.

2. Monsoon: June to September²

With the arrival of the rains, LST drops across the district and becomes more uniform.

- **Temperature Range:** Average LST settles between **28°C and 31°C**.
- **Impact of Moisture:** The high cloud cover reduces direct solar radiation, and increased soil moisture allows the land to dissipate heat more effectively through evaporation. Water bodies and wetlands (which are abundant in this district) maintain the lowest and most stable temperatures during this time.

3. Winter: November to February

Winter brings the most drastic cooling, with January being the coldest month.³

- **Temperature Range:** LST typically fluctuates between **18°C and 25°C** during the day, while nighttime "skin" temperatures can drop to **12°C–15°C**.
- **Seasonal Contrast:** * The difference between summer and winter LST in South 24 Parganas can be as much as **15°C to 18°C**.
 - **Inversion Effect:** During winter nights, concrete and paved surfaces in the urban north shed heat quickly, but "thermal inertia" can sometimes keep built-up areas slightly warmer than the surrounding rural paddy fields.

Comparison of Seasonal LST Characteristics:

Feature		Summer (May)	Winter (January)
Typical Range	LST	34 [°] C - 39 [°] C	18 [°] C - 24 [°] C
Highest Zones	LST	Built-up areas & Fallow land	Urban centers (Night heat retention)

Feature	Summer (May)	Winter (January)
Lowest LST Zones	Mangroves & Deep water	Rural wetlands & Shaded forests
Primary Driver	Solar Insolation	Atmospheric Cooling & Dry Air

Prompt 5: Google Earth engine code to calculate LST (for reference)

```
// 1. Define the Area of Interest (South 24 Parganas)
```

```
// Note: You can also upload a Shapefile to assets and call it here.
```

```
var roi = ee.FeatureCollection("FAO/GAUL/2015/level2")
    .filter(ee.Filter.eq('ADM2_NAME', 'South 24 Parganas'));
```

```
Map.centerObject(roi, 9);
```

```
Map.addLayer(roi, {color: 'grey'}, 'South 24 Parganas Boundary', false);
```

```
// 2. Load Landsat 8 Collection 2 Level 2 (Surface Reflectance & Temp)
```

```
// We filter for a specific seasonal window (e.g., Summer 2023)
```

```
var summer_collection = ee.ImageCollection("LANDSAT/LC08/C02/T1_L2")
    .filterBounds(roi)
    .filterDate('2023-03-01', '2023-05-31')
    .filter(ee.Filter.lt('CLOUD_COVER', 10))
    .median()
    .clip(roi);
```

```
// 3. Calculation of NDVI (Using Band 5 and Band 4)
```

```
var nir = summer_collection.select('SR_B5');
```

```
var red = summer_collection.select('SR_B4');
```

```
var ndvi = nir.subtract(red).divide(nir.add(red)).rename('NDVI');
```

// 4. Calculate Proportion of Vegetation (Pv)

```
var min = ee.Number(ndvi.reduceRegion({  
  reducer: ee.Reducer.min(),  
  geometry: roi,  
  scale: 30,  
  maxPixels: 1e9  
}).values().get(0));
```

```
var max = ee.Number(ndvi.reduceRegion({  
  reducer: ee.Reducer.max(),  
  geometry: roi,  
  scale: 30,  
  maxPixels: 1e9  
}).values().get(0));
```

```
var pv = (ndvi.subtract(min).divide(max.subtract(min))).pow(ee.Image(2)).rename('Pv');
```

// 5. Calculate Land Surface Emissivity (E)

// Formula: $0.004 * P_v + 0.986$

```
var emissivity = pv.multiply(0.004).add(0.986).rename('Emissivity');
```

// 6. Select Thermal Band and Convert to Brightness Temperature (BT)

// Landsat 8 Band 10 is the Thermal band.

// Collection 2 Level 2 thermal bands are already scaled.

// Scale factor is 0.00341802 and offset is 149.0 for Kelvin.

```
var thermal = summer_collection.select('ST_B10');
```

```
var bt = thermal.multiply(0.00341802).add(149.0); // Result in Kelvin
```

```
var btCelsius = bt.subtract(273.15).rename('BT_Celsius'); // Convert to Celsius
```

```
// 7. Calculate Final Land Surface Temperature (LST)
```

```
// Formula:  $LST = BT / (1 + (\lambda * BT / \rho) * \ln(\text{emissivity}))$ 
```

```
var lambda = 10.895; // Wavelength for Band 10
```

```
var rho = 14388; // constant  $h*c/\sigma$ 
```

```
var lst = btCelsius.divide(
```

```
  btCelsius.multiply(lambda).divide(rho).multiply(emissivity.log()).add(1)
```

```
).rename('LST_South24Parganas');
```

```
// 8. Visualization
```

```
var lstVis = {
```

```
  min: 25,
```

```
  max: 45,
```

```
  palette: [
```

```
    '0000ff', '00ffff', 'ffff00', 'ff0000', 'b22222'
```

```
  ]
```

```
};
```

```
Map.addLayer(lst, lstVis, 'Land Surface Temperature (Celsius)');
```

```
// 9. Export the result to Google Drive
```

```
Export.image.toDrive({
```

```
  image: lst,
```

```
  description: 'LST_South_24_Parganas_Summer',
```

```
  scale: 30,
```

```
  region: roi,
```

```
  fileFormat: 'GeoTIFF',
```

```
  maxPixels: 1e9
```

```
});
```

How to use this script:

1. **Open GEE:** Go to code.earthengine.google.com.
2. **Paste & Run:** Paste the code into the editor and click **Run**.
3. **Winter Analysis:** To calculate the winter variation, change the date range in Step 2 to '2023-12-01' to '2024-01-31'.
4. **Legend:** The map will display a color gradient where **Blue** represents cooler surfaces (wetlands/mangroves) and **Dark Red** represents hot surfaces (urban/fallow land).

Key Variables Explained:

- **Scale Factors:** In Landsat Collection 2, the thermal data is pre-processed. We apply 0.00341802 to get Kelvin directly from the pixel value.
- **ROI:** The script uses the Global Administrative Unit Layer (GAUL) to automatically find the South 24 Parganas boundary.
- **Emissivity Correction:** This is the most critical part of LST. By calculating NDVI first, we tell the script exactly which pixels are dense forest (high emissivity) and which are bare soil (lower emissivity), making the temperature much more accurate than a simple "brightness temperature" reading.

Prompt 6: Why LST varies according to the season

The variation of Land Surface Temperature (LST) across seasons is a complex interaction between solar energy, atmospheric conditions, and the physical properties of the earth's surface.¹ In a region like **South 24 Parganas**, these changes are particularly dramatic due to the shift from dry heat to monsoon humidity and finally to winter cooling.

Here are the primary drivers of seasonal LST variation:

1. Solar Zenith Angle and Day Length

The most fundamental cause is the Earth's axial tilt.

- **Summer:** The sun is more directly overhead (closer to a 90° angle). This concentrates solar radiation over a smaller surface area, leading to intense heating.² Additionally, longer daylight hours mean the surface absorbs heat for a longer duration than it can dissipate at night.
- **Winter:** The sun hits the earth at a more oblique angle.³ The energy is spread over a larger area, and shorter days provide less time for the surface to heat up.

2. Soil Moisture and Evaporative Cooling

LST is highly sensitive to how much water is in the soil.⁴

- **Dry Season (Summer):** In South 24 Parganas, many agricultural fields lie fallow and dry. Without moisture, solar energy is converted almost entirely into **Sensible Heat** (the heat you feel), causing LST to spike.
- **Wet Season (Monsoon):** Rain saturates the soil. Solar energy is then used for **Latent Heat** (the energy required to evaporate water) rather than raising the surface temperature. This "evaporative cooling" keeps LST much lower.

3. Vegetation Phenology (The "Greenness" Factor)

Plants act as natural air conditioners for the earth's surface.⁵

- **Summer Stress:** High heat and water scarcity can reduce leaf area index (LAI) in non-mangrove areas. Less leaf cover means more "bare soil" is exposed to direct sunlight, increasing LST.
- **Growth Peaks:** During or after the monsoon, vegetation density increases. Leaves provide shade to the ground and release water vapor through **transpiration**, significantly lowering the surface temperature compared to paved urban areas.

4. Atmospheric Composition and Cloud Cover

The atmosphere acts as a filter and a blanket.

- **Cloud Shading:** In summer and monsoon, heavy cloud cover reflects incoming solar radiation back into space (high albedo), which can temporarily suppress LST.
- **Clear Skies:** In winter, clear skies allow solar radiation to reach the ground easily during the day, but they also allow **Longwave Radiation** (heat) to escape rapidly back into the atmosphere at night, leading to very low nighttime LST.

5. Surface Albedo and Thermal Inertia

Different surfaces react differently to seasonal changes:

- **Urban Surfaces:** Concrete and bitumen have high thermal inertia; they absorb massive amounts of heat in the summer and stay warm long after the sun sets.
- **Water Bodies:** In South 24 Parganas (the land of rivers), water has a high specific heat capacity. It stays cooler than the land in summer and remains slightly warmer than the land in winter, acting as a "seasonal buffer."

Seasonal Summary for South 24 Parganas

Factor	Summer (Pre-Monsoon)	Winter
Solar Intensity	Maximum (Direct rays)	Minimum (Slanted rays)
Primary Cooling	Low (Dry surface)	High (Radiation loss at night)
Surface State	Dry, bare soil hotspots	Moist soil, active cropping

Factor	Summer (Pre-Monsoon)	Winter
LST Range	32°C to 45°C	15°C to 25°C

Prompt 7: Significance of LST as geophysical parameter



Commissioned Manuscript

Open Access

Satellite Remote Sensing of Global Land Surface Temperature: Definition, Methods, Products, and Applications

[Zhao-Liang Li](#), [Hua Wu](#), [Si-Bo Duan](#), [Wei Zhao](#), [Huazhong Ren](#), [Xiangyang Liu](#), [Pei Leng](#), [Ronglin Tang](#), [Xin Ye](#), [Jinshun Zhu](#), [Yingwei Sun](#), [Menglin Si](#), [Meng Liu](#), [Jiahao Li](#), [Xia Zhang](#), [Guofei Shang](#), [Bo-Hui Tang](#), [Guangjian Yan](#), [Chenghu Zhou](#)

First published: 24 December 2022

<https://doi.org/10.1029/2022RG000777>

Land surface temperature (LST) is a crucial geophysical parameter related to surface energy and water balance of the land-atmosphere system. Satellite remote sensing provides the best way to measure LST and generate various LST products at regional and global scales. In this review, to facilitate the application of LST products in different fields, we first present the physical meaning of satellite-derived LST. Subsequently, we summarize recent advances in LST retrieval and validation methods, with a special focus on the state-of-the-art product collections, product accuracies and intercomparisons, and main problems in current LST products as well as their possible solutions. Additionally, we also review the major applications of LST products in agricultural drought monitoring, thermal environment monitoring, thermal anomaly monitoring, and climate change. Finally, we offer recommendations or perspectives to promote LST retrieval methods and their applications. This review will aid the user in gaining a thorough comprehensive understanding of satellite-derived LST products and promoting their appropriate applications.

Prompt 8: Significance of LST in Remote sensing

Land Surface Temperature (LST) is vital in remote sensing as a key indicator of land-atmosphere energy/water exchange, crucial for climate modeling, [agricultural drought monitoring](#), urban heat studies ([UHI](#)), hydrology, and ecology, providing large-scale insights into surface energy balance, vegetation health, and climate change impacts through satellite thermal infrared data. It helps understand land processes, validates climate models, monitors vegetation stress, and assesses environmental issues like urban heat islands.

Key Significance of LST in Remote Sensing:

- **Land-Atmosphere Interaction:** LST reflects how the surface exchanges heat and water with the atmosphere, a fundamental component of the Earth's energy balance.
- **Climate & Weather Studies:** It's used to constrain surface energy budgets, monitor climate change, and improve weather forecasting models.
- **Agriculture & Drought:** Monitoring LST helps detect agricultural drought, assess crop water stress, and manage irrigation.
- **Urban Planning:** Understanding LST is crucial for studying the [Urban Heat Island](#) (UHI) effect, informing urban design and mitigation strategies.
- **Hydrology & Ecology:** It aids in studying water cycles, evapotranspiration, and the health and stress of ecosystems.
- **Environmental Monitoring:** LST helps identify thermal anomalies, monitor environmental changes, and assess land degradation (like barren land).

Remote Sensing's Role:

- Satellites provide the only feasible way to measure LST globally with high spatial and temporal resolution, offering complete area coverage rather than just point measurements.
- Thermal Infrared (TIR) sensors on satellites are used to derive LST, leading to global data products from missions like MODIS, ASTER, and Sentinel.

Assignment 01

Submitted By,

Sreejata Bhattacharjee

Roll no: 25CEM5R10



Submitted To,

Dr Narayanarao

Thermal, Microwave and hyperspectral remote sensing

History of prompts and Responses:

ChatGPT:

Prompt 1: Examples of thermal spaceborne sensors in remote sensing with detailed specifications and use

Thermal spaceborne sensors are critical for global monitoring of land and sea temperatures, wildfire detection, and ecosystem health. In 2025, several high-performance instruments provide essential data for research and operational use.

1. Landsat 9: Thermal Infrared Sensor-2 (TIRS-2)

Launched as part of the Landsat 9 mission, TIRS-2 is an advanced push-broom imager that continues the long-term record of Earth's surface temperature.

- **Spectral Bands:** Two bands in the LWIR region: **Band 10** (10.60–11.19 μm) and **Band 11** (11.50–12.51 μm).
- **Spatial Resolution:** 100 m ground sampling distance (resampled to 30 m in standard products).
- **Thermal Sensitivity (NE Δ T):** Less than 100 mK (0.1°C).
- **Use Cases:** TIRS-2 is primarily used for **evapotranspiration monitoring** to manage water resources in agriculture and for identifying urban heat islands.

2. Sentinel-3: Sea and Land Surface Temperature Radiometer (SLSTR)

Part of the European Copernicus program, SLSTR provides high-accuracy temperature measurements with a very wide swath for rapid revisit times.

- **Spectral Bands:** 9 standard channels, including three thermal bands: **S7** (3.74 μm), **S8** (10.85 μm), and **S9** (12.0 μm). It also has two dedicated "fire" bands (**F1** and **F2**) designed not to saturate at temperatures up to ~650 K.
- **Spatial Resolution:** 1 km for all thermal and fire bands.
- **Revisit Time:** Less than one day with two satellites (3A and 3B) in orbit.
- **Use Cases:** Global **Sea Surface Temperature (SST)** monitoring for climate studies and real-time **active fire detection**.

3. ECOSTRESS (on the International Space Station)

The ECOsystem Spaceborne Thermal Radiometer Experiment on Space Station (ECOSTRESS) focuses on how plants respond to heat and water stress.

- **Spectral Bands:** 5 thermal bands in the 8–12.5 μm range and one SWIR band for geolocation.
- **Spatial Resolution:** High resolution of approximately **70 m x 70 m**.
- **Temporal Resolution:** Unique non-sun-synchronous orbit allows it to sample at **different times of the day**, capturing diurnal biological processes.
- **Use Cases:** Measuring **plant water use** (consumptive use) and identifying agricultural vulnerability to drought at the scale of individual farmer's fields.

4. Terra Satellite: ASTER

The Advanced Spaceborne Thermal Emission and Reflection Radiometer (ASTER) is a cooperative effort between NASA and Japan's METI.

- **Spectral Bands:** 5 thermal infrared bands (8.125–11.65 μm).
- **Spatial Resolution:** 90 m for thermal bands.
- **Use Cases:** Highly detailed **geological mapping**, mineral exploration, and monitoring volcanic activity through thermal anomalies.

Summary of Specifications

Sensor	Platform	Thermal Bands	Resolution	Primary Use
TIRS-2	Landsat 9	2	100 m	Agricultural water management
SLSTR	Sentinel-3	3 (+ 2 Fire)	1 km	Sea/Land temperature & Fire detection
ECOSTRESS	ISS	5	70 m	Vegetation water stress & Diurnal cycles

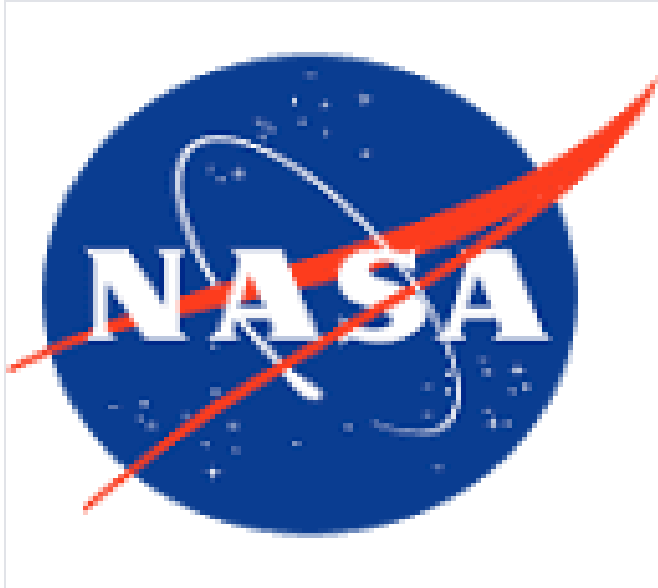
ASTER

Terra

5

90 m

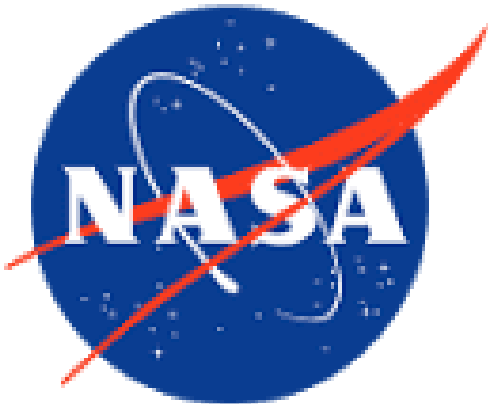
Geology and Volcanology



19 sites

- Landsat 9 - NASA Science

3 Dec 2025 — Table_title: Landsat 9 Table_content: header: | Quick Facts | | row: | Quick Facts: Sensors: OLI, TIRS : Spatial Resol...

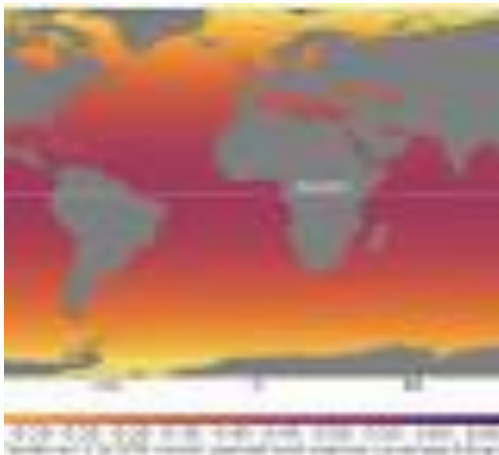


NASA Science (.gov)



- Sentinel-3 SLSTR level 1 data guide - EUMETSAT - User Portal
9 Jan 2024 — Table_title: SLSTR instrument specifics Table_content: header: | Band | λ centre (μm) | Width (μm) | Function | Comments...

Eumetsat



- Landsat 9 Thermal Infrared Sensor-2 (TIRS-2) Pre - MDPI
17 Mar 2024 — As per the TIRS-2 instrument requirement documentation, the edge slope is defined as the rate of increase in intensity ...

MDPI

Prompt 2: Show all

Give 6 more examples for above answer

Thermal spaceborne sensors in 2025 include several high-resolution and specialized instruments designed for agricultural monitoring, disaster management, and climate science.

1. TRISHNA (Thermal infraRed Imaging Satellite for High-resolution Natural resource Assessment)

A joint mission between ISRO (India) and CNES (France) planned for launch in 2025/2026.

- **Thermal Bands:** 4 bands in the LWIR region (centered at 8.6, 9.1, 10.3, and 11.5 μm).
- **Spatial Resolution:** 57 m for land/coastal areas; 1 km for oceanic regions.
- **Temporal Resolution:** Revisit time of better than 3 days globally.
- **Primary Use:** Monitoring ecosystem water stress, evapotranspiration, and urban microclimates.

2. NASA SBG (Surface Biology and Geology)

A future "Designated Observable" mission within NASA's Earth System Observatory.

- **Thermal Bands:** 5 to 8 bands in the MWIR (3–5 μm) and LWIR (8–12 μm) regions.
- **Spatial Resolution:** ~60 m ground sampling distance.
- **Thermal Sensitivity:** 0.2K NeDT for TIR; 0.3K for MWIR.
- **Primary Use:** High-resolution monitoring of active wildfires and volcanic eruptions using dual MWIR bands for high-temperature detection.

3. METimage (on MetOp-SG A)

An advanced multispectral radiometer on the EUMETSAT Polar System-Second Generation, with the first satellite (MetOp-SG A1) launch targeted for late 2025.

- **Thermal Bands:** Includes 10 thermal channels from 3.7 μm to 13.3 μm (e.g., 3.74, 10.69, and 12.02 μm).
- **Spatial Resolution:** 500 m at nadir.
- **Swath Width:** Extremely wide across-track swath of ~2,670 km.
- **Primary Use:** Global sea and land surface temperature (SST/LST), cloud characterization, and fire detection.

4. VIIRS (Visible Infrared Imaging Radiometer Suite)

Operating on the Suomi NPP and NOAA-20/21 satellites.

- **Thermal Bands:** Multiple "M-bands" (750 m) and two "I-bands" (375 m) in the thermal range (e.g., I5 at 11.45 μm).
- **Temporal Resolution:** Daily global coverage.
- **Primary Use:** Standard for global fire mapping and ocean color/temperature monitoring.

5. IASI-NG (Infrared Atmospheric Sounding Interferometer New Generation)

A hyperspectral sounder also on the MetOp-SG A satellites.

- **Spectral Channels:** Thousands of channels in the infrared (3.62–15.5 μm).
- **Primary Use:** Atmospheric profiling of temperature and moisture with double the spectral and spatial resolution of its predecessor (IASI).

6. Copernicus LSTM (Land Surface Temperature Monitoring)

An upcoming European Space Agency (ESA) mission specifically for temperature monitoring.

- **Specifications:** Targets 50 m spatial resolution with a revisit of ~ 3 days.
- **Primary Use:** High-resolution LST data to support agricultural management and urban heat island studies, complementary to the TRISHNA mission.

Prompt 3: Applications of thermal satellite imagery

Application 1: Thermal imagery in climate monitoring

According to the Intergovernmental Panel on Climate Change (IPCC), global surface temperatures have continued to increase. More intense and frequent wildfires, droughts, and heat waves are some of the consequences of global warming. There is an urgent need for actions to combat climate change and its impacts.

Land surface temperature (LST) and sea surface temperature (SST) are among the essential climate variables used to assess the impact of climate change. They facilitate the understanding of the Earth's weather and climate patterns.

Thermal infrared satellites enable LST and SST measurement at regional and global scales. They enable consistent monitoring and complement in situ measurements for tracking surface temperatures. Ultimately, satellite thermal imaging supports policy-making for combating climate change.

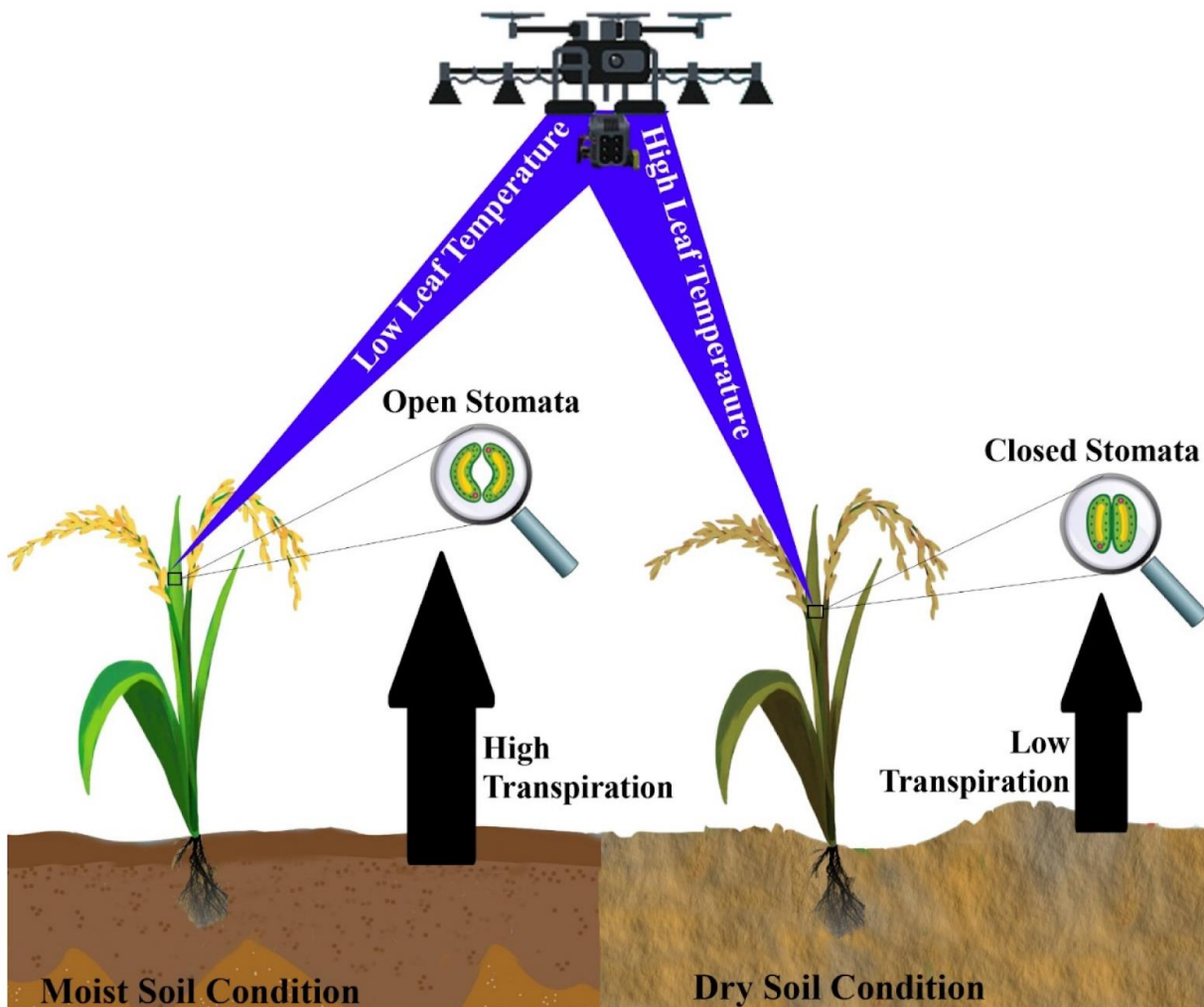
Application 2: Thermal satellite imagery in precision agriculture

Precision agriculture is concerned with optimizing farm inputs for maximum productivity. It entails integrating various tools and technologies to inform the rates of inputs based on site-specific information.

Thermal images provide temperature estimates of the soil and crop surfaces for various applications in precision agriculture, including:

- Irrigation scheduling: Efficient irrigation scheduling helps to conserve fresh water. At the same time, it ensures that the soil moisture is adequate to sustain crop growth. Otherwise, the crops end up water-stressed, reducing yields. Temperature variations in thermal images can provide information on moisture-stressed crops.

When a leaf transpires, it cools relative to the surrounding air. However, as water becomes scarce, transpiration reduces and the leaf temperature increases. Therefore, water-stressed plants experience higher leaf temperatures than non-stressed vegetation. Thermal images can detect the rising canopy temperatures to inform optimal irrigation timing.



Estimation of crop water stress using thermal remote sensing. (Source: Ahmad, U.; Alvino, A.; Marino, S. A Review of Crop Water Stress Assessment Using Remote Sensing. *Remote Sens.* 2021, 13, 4155. <https://doi.org/10.3390/rs13204155>) (CC BY 4.0).

- Crop health assessment: Plant diseases can impair water absorption and transpiration, leading to a warmer plant canopy. Differences in plant canopy temperatures serve as indicators of crop health.

While vegetation indices like the normalised difference vegetation index (NDVI) can detect changes in greenness caused by plant stress, thermal images can help to catch these early, i.e., when the plants are still green.

This is why companies like ConstellR use high-resolution LST data to inform agricultural practices. They provide field-level insights on crop health and water stress for irrigation scheduling and yield prediction. Overall, the insights support water conservation and agricultural production in a changing climate.

Application 3: Thermal imaging in detecting and monitoring wildfires

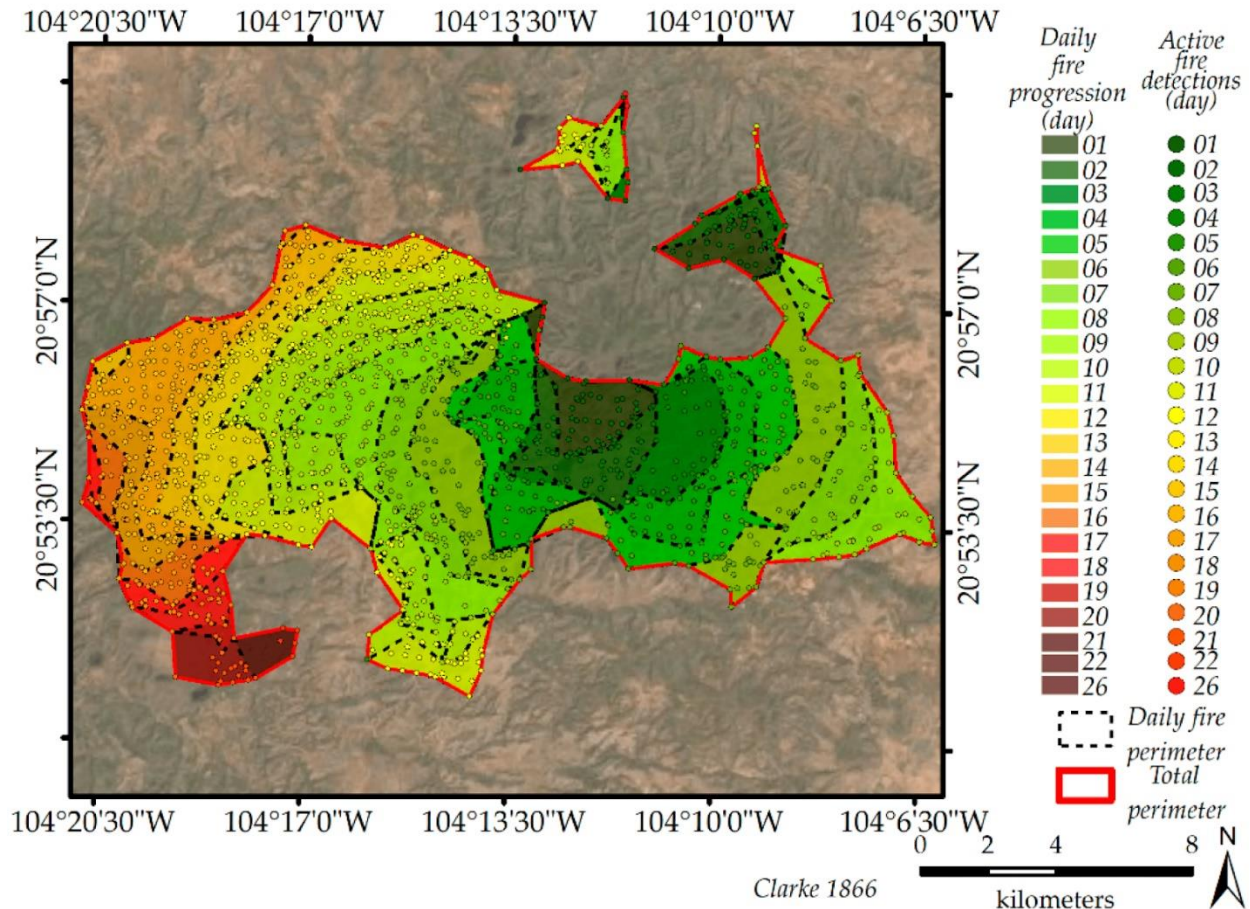
The increasing frequency and severity of wildfires highlight the need for effective wildfire management strategies. Early wildfire detection is pivotal to mitigating their impacts. Thermal satellite images are at the center of these efforts.

Thermal anomalies or an unexpected increase in the temperature value of a pixel relative to its neighbors is the basis for identifying wildfires.

Active fires emit more strongly in the MWIR (3--5 μm) than the LWIR (8-14 μm) wavelengths. This is due to the relatively higher temperatures. The cooler surrounding objects emit more strongly in the LWIR region. The higher signals in the 3--5 μm wavelengths form the basis of most active fire detection algorithms.

The startup OroraTech is harnessing the power of thermal radiation to detect wildfires. Their FOREST-2 thermal sensor captures the Earth's temperature and relays the data in near-real-time to enable timely wildfire detection and monitoring.

FOREST-2 is among their planned constellation of sensors aimed at global temperature monitoring every 30 minutes. The improved resolution offers the potential for early estimation of fire perimeters which can support fire monitoring and management in near real time.



Daily fire perimeters from the aggregation of daily active fire detections of VIIRS and MODIS. (Source: Briones-Herrera, C.I.; Vega-Nieva, D.J.; Monjarás-Vega, N.A.; Briseño-Reyes, J.; López-Serrano, P.M.; Corral-Rivas, J.J.; Alvarado-Celestino, E.; Arellano-Pérez, S.; Álvarez-González, J.G.; Ruiz-González, A.D.; et al. Near Real-Time Automated Early Mapping of the Perimeter of Large Forest Fires from the Aggregation of VIIRS and MODIS Active Fires in Mexico. *Remote Sens.* 2020, 12, 2061. <https://doi.org/10.3390/rs12122061>) (CC BY 4.0)

With the rising temperatures, wildfires continue to be a pressing issue. Prevention and management calls for early detection of hotspots. Thermal infrared satellites are an essential tool towards these efforts.

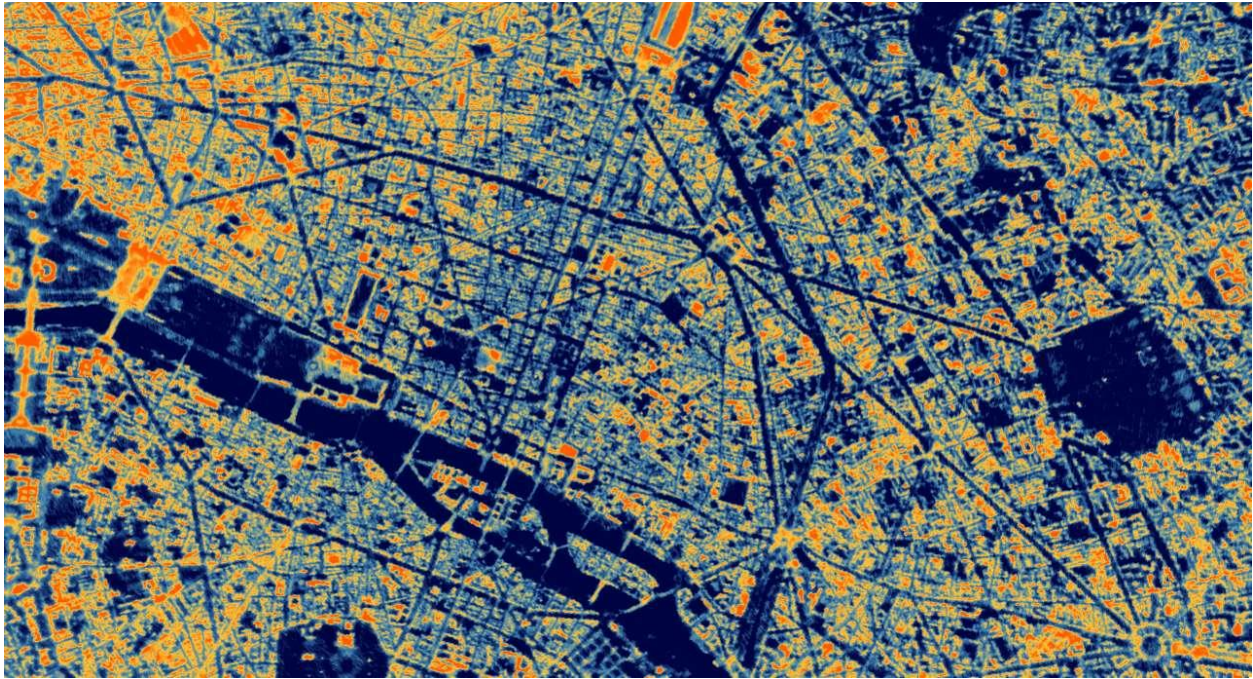
Discover how satellites can be used in wildfire response.

Application 4: Thermal imaging in detecting urban heat islands

Pavements, concrete, and other non-vegetated surfaces are some factors that lead to higher temperatures in urban areas as compared to surrounding non-urbanized areas. This phenomenon is called the urban heat island effect.

According to the United States Environmental Protection Agency (EPA), urban heat islands cause reduced air quality, higher air conditioning costs, and heat-related illnesses. Global warming and

rapid urban growth continue to exacerbate the problem. There is a need for targeted efforts towards lowering urban temperatures.



Land surface temperatures over an urban area. Image source: [SatVu](#)

Land surface temperatures derived from thermal satellite images can enable the identification of urban heat islands. Urban areas consist of heterogeneous surfaces. High spatial resolution images are thus needed to derive fine-scale temperature changes for targeted interventions.

However, the spatial resolution of existing satellites has limited such fine-scale analysis. For example, Landsat thermal bands have a spatial resolution of 30m. But players like Ororatech and SatVu are gaining ground here.

Access thermal satellite imagery today

From precision agriculture to disaster response, thermal satellite imagery provides vital insights about the Earth's surface. However, thermal satellites are limited in number as compared to optical satellites. But this is changing.

OroraTech) and SatVu have launched thermal satellites, increasing the available thermal imagery on the market today, with Ororatech available for tasking and archive and SatVu available for archive.

Want to access the datasets? [Head into your UP42 account to find them.](#)

Want more information, or want to talk about your desired use case? [Get in touch with us today.](#)

Key takeaways

- Any object with a temperature above absolute zero (-273°C) emits electromagnetic radiation. Thermal imaging is the process of measuring this radiation in the thermal infrared (TIR) part of the electromagnetic spectrum
- The thermal infrared (TIR) region of the electromagnetic spectrum extends from $3\text{ }\mu\text{m}$ to $14\text{ }\mu\text{m}$. It's made up of medium-wave infrared (MWIR) and long-wave infrared (LWIR) wavelengths. The most commonly used wavelengths for thermal infrared remote sensing are $3\text{--}5\text{ }\mu\text{m}$ and $8\text{--}14\text{ }\mu\text{m}$ because Earth's surface materials (like soil, water, and vegetation) emit radiation in the LWIR region at their ambient temperature.

-Things like ozone, water vapor, and carbon dioxide in the Earth's atmosphere can absorb electromagnetic radiation, which can reduce the amount of radiation that reaches the sensor.

- Unlike reflected infrared, TIR radiation is measured as surface temperature and is collected independently of the sun. This means that thermal imagery can be taken during both the day and night.
- Thermal imaging has many applications. For example, it can be used to see temperature variations over urban surfaces that are not visible in optical imagery. Land surface temperature (LST) and sea surface temperature (SST) are important climate variables that help us understand the Earth's weather and climate patterns. These can be measured at regional and global scales using thermal infrared satellites.

Examples of airborne thermal sensors in remote sensing with detailed specification

Thermal airborne sensors used in remote sensing are specialized instruments designed to detect emitted infrared radiation from platforms like airplanes, helicopters, and UAVs. As of 2025, several high-performance systems are leading the industry with advanced spectral and spatial capabilities.

1. ITRES TABI-1800**(Broadband Imager)****Thermal Airborne Broadband Imager (TABI-1800)**

is an industry-leading push-broom sensor optimized for wide-area thermal mapping.

- **Spectral Range:** $3.7 - 4.8\text{ }\mu\text{m}$ (Medium-wave Infrared/MWIR).
- **Spatial Configuration:** 1,800 across-track pixels (the industry's widest array).
- **Field of View (FOV):** 40° .

- **Spatial Resolution:** 10 cm to 1.25 m depending on flight altitude (can reach ~2 cm from a helicopter).
- **Thermal Sensitivity (NE Δ T):** Less than 0.05°C (50 mK) at 300K.
- **Primary Uses:** Building heat loss surveys, forest fire hotspot mapping, search and rescue, and pipeline leak detection.

2. SPECIM AisaOWL (Hyperspectral Imager)

AisaOWL is a high-performance **long-wave infrared (LWIR)** hyperspectral system designed for detailed chemical and mineral analysis.

- **Spectral Range:** 7.6 – 12.5 μ m (LWIR).
- **Spectral Bands:** 96 to 102 continuous bands with 100 nm spectral resolution.
- **Spatial Configuration:** 384 pixels across-track.
- **Weight:** 13.1 kg, featuring a Stirling-cycle cooler to eliminate the need for liquid nitrogen.
- **Primary Uses:** Mineral mapping, soil analysis, and defense applications where specific material identification is required.

3. NASA/JPL HyTES (Hyperspectral Spectrometer)

The **Hyperspectral Thermal Emission Spectrometer (HyTES)** is a research-grade instrument developed by NASA's Jet Propulsion Laboratory for advanced science missions.

- **Spectral Range:** 7.5 – 12.0 μ m.
- **Spectral Channels:** 256 contiguous bands with a 17.6 nm sampling interval.
- **Spatial Configuration:** 512 pixels across-track with a 50° FOV.
- **Resolution:** Varies from ~2 m (at 1 km altitude) to 35 m (at 18 km altitude on high-altitude ER-2 aircraft).
- **Detector:** Cooled to 40K using a Quantum Well Infrared Photodetector (QWIP).
- **Primary Uses:** Monitoring gas plumes (CH₄, H₂S, SO₂, NO₂), volcano observations, and agricultural evapotranspiration modeling.

4. ITRES TASI-600 (Hyperspectral Imager)

The TASI-600 is a specialized hyperspectral thermal sensor used for high-resolution environmental monitoring.

- **Spectral Range:** 8.0 – 11.5 μm .
- **Spectral Bands:** 32 channels.
- **Spatial Configuration:** 600 spatial pixels with a 40° FOV.
- **Primary Uses:** Geological mapping and distinguishing subtle temperature differences in diverse terrain.

5. AMS-Wildfire (Autonomous Modular Sensor)

Developed for NASA high-altitude UAVs and pressurized aircraft, the AMS is a tactical instrument for real-time disaster management.

- **Spectral Range:** 12 spectral bands from 0.42 to 11.26 μm , including dual-gain infrared bands to measure a wide temperature range without saturating.
- **FOV:** Selectable at 43° or 86° depending on the required resolution.
- **Primary Uses:** Real-time forest fire mapping and active hotspot detection through heavy smoke.

6. Daedalus DS-1268 (Airborne Multispectral Scanner)

A legacy across-track scanner that remains a reference for multi-band thermal remote sensing.

- **Spectral Bands:** Includes a thermal infrared channel from 8.5 to 13.5 μm .
- **Sensor Cooling:** Detectors are cooled using liquid helium or nitrogen to improve sensitivity.
- **Primary Uses:** Broad environmental monitoring and historical thermal data collection.

In addition to the previous list, here are five more advanced airborne thermal sensors frequently used in 2025 for remote sensing applications ranging from industrial inspections to specialized atmospheric research.

1. Telops Hyper-Cam Airborne Mini

The Hyper-Cam Airborne Mini is a compact, high-performance Fourier Transform Infrared (FTIR) hyperspectral imager designed specifically for gas detection and quantification.

- **Spectral Range:** 7.7 – 11.8 μm (LWIR).
- **Spectral Resolution:** User-selectable from 0.25 to 150 cm^{-1} (typically used at 16 cm^{-1}).
- **Spatial Configuration:** 320 x 256 pixel array with an instantaneous field of view (iFOV) of 0.75 mrad.
- **Weight:** Extremely lightweight at ~20.6 kg (including processing unit) compared to full-sized airborne FTIR systems.
- **Primary Use:** Real-time identification and quantification of gas plumes (e.g., methane, ammonia, SO_2) over industrial sites and oil refineries.

2. Workswell WIRIS Enterprise

A multi-sensor payload optimized for commercial drones (UAVs) that integrates thermal, visible, and range-finding capabilities.

- **Spectral Range:** 7.5 – 13.5 μm (LWIR).
- **Thermal Resolution:** 640 x 512 pixels, featuring a "Super Resolution Mode" that produces 1266 x 1010 pixel thermograms.
- **Temperature Sensitivity:** 0.05°C (50 mK) standard, with an optional 30 mK high-sensitivity version.
- **Temperature Range:** Capable of measuring up to 1500°C.
- **Primary Use:** Industrial thermodynamics (power lines, solar panels), firefighting, and precision agriculture (detecting water stress).

3. Teledyne FLIR Boson+

A high-performance LWIR thermal camera module widely integrated into smaller UAV platforms for tactical and environmental monitoring.

- **Spectral Range:** 7.5 – 13.5 μm .
- **Spatial Resolution:** 640 x 512 pixels.
- **Sensitivity (NEDT):** Highly sensitive at < 20 mK, providing superior image contrast in low-thermal-contrast environments.
- **Weight:** Minimal footprint at < 7.5 g (sensor only), ideal for small drones.
- **Primary Use:** Search and rescue, wildlife tracking, and building energy audits where minimal payload weight is critical.

4. Daedalus DS-1260

A legacy across-track multispectral scanner that remains a reference for high-resolution environmental mapping.

- **Thermal Bands:** Typically records one thermal infrared channel in the 8.5 – 13.5 μm range.
- **Detector Cooling:** Uses liquid nitrogen or helium cooling to ensure detected energy originates from the terrain rather than the sensor's own heat.
- **Primary Use:** Broad environmental monitoring and historical thermal baseline studies for forestry and geological research.

5. SPECIM AisaFENIX

(Thermal Integrated)

While primarily a VNIR-SWIR hyperspectral sensor, it is often paired with thermal modules (like AisaOWL) in full-spectrum airborne suites.

- **Spectral Integration:** Provides a continuous spectral range from 380 nm to 2500 nm, often supplemented with LWIR channels (8–12 μm) for comprehensive surface analysis.
- **Spatial Pixels:** 384 to 1024 depending on configuration.
- **Primary Use:** Holistic environmental assessment where thermal data is fused with optical and SWIR data to identify soil moisture, mineral content, and vegetation health simultaneously.

REFERENCES:

Below are the citations and technical sources for the airborne thermal sensors discussed, verified for 2025 data.

1. Core Airborne Thermal Imagers

- **ITRES TABI-1800:**

- Official Product Specifications - ITRES Research: Confirms 1,800 across-track pixels, 3.7–4.8 μm spectral range, and 40° field of view.
- Operational Use Case - GeodesyGroup: Details resolution capabilities (10 cm to 2 m) and applications in fire mapping.

- **SPECIM AisaOWL:**

- AisaOWL Product Sheet - Adept Turnkey: Lists 384 spatial pixels, 100 spectral bands, and 7.6–12.5 μm spectral range.
- Airborne Hyperspectral Systems - Specim Official: Verifies 2025 availability and use in defense and commercial research.

- **NASA/JPL HyTES:**

- HyTES Instrument Specifications - NASA JPL: Documents 256 spectral bands (7.5–12 μm), 512 spatial pixels, and a 50° total field of view.
- HyTES Technical Guide - NASA Earth Science: Outlines use in methane plume detection and volcanology.

2. Specialized & Tactical Sensors

- **ITRES TASI-600:**

- TASI-600 Technical Brochure - Formosa Trend: Confirms 32 spectral channels (8.0–11.5 μm) and 600 spatial pixels.
- TASI-600 Overview - ResearchGate: Details its use for volcanic monitoring and mineral mapping.

- **AMS-Wildfire:**

- Thermal Remote Sensing Applications - MLSU: Details the Autonomous Modular Sensor (AMS) dual-band LWIR/MWIR configuration for disaster response.

- **Telops Hyper-Cam Airborne Mini**

- Airborne Hyperspectral Solutions - Telops: Provides data on the FTIR-based spectral resolution (user-selectable) and 7.7–11.8 μm range for gas detection.

3. UAV-Integrated Sensors

- **Workswell WIRIS Enterprise**

- Enterprise Series Data - Workswell: Confirms 640x512 thermal resolution and high-temperature measuring range up to 1500°C for industrial diagnostics.

- **Teledyne FLIR Boson+**

- Boson+ Technical Specifications - Teledyne FLIR: Documents thermal sensitivity (<20 mK) and 640x512 spatial resolution for lightweight UAV integration.

4. Supporting Academic & Industry Overviews

- Thermal Remote Sensing and its Applications - PDF: Comprehensive overview of sensor cooling requirements and wavelength bands for airborne scanners.
- Review of Modern Thermal Imaging Sensor Technology - MDPI: Discusses current trends in thermal sensor resolution and sensitivity for 2021–2025.

Gemini pro:

Prompt 1: What are thermal sensors in remote sensing?

Thermal sensors in remote sensing are instruments designed to detect and measure **emitted thermal radiation** (heat) rather than reflected sunlight. While optical sensors see the light that "bounces" off objects, thermal sensors "feel" the heat energy that objects release naturally.

Everything with a temperature above absolute zero (0 K or -273.15°C) emits electromagnetic radiation.³ Thermal sensors capture this energy, primarily in the **Thermal Infrared (TIR)** region of the spectrum.

1. How They Work

Thermal sensors operate based on the principle that the amount of radiation an object emits is directly related to its temperature.

- **Spectral Range:** They typically operate in "atmospheric windows" where the air is transparent to heat, specifically the $3\text{--}5\ \mu\text{m}$ (Mid-wave IR) and $8\text{--}14\ \mu\text{m}$ (Long-wave IR) ranges.⁶
- **Kinetic vs. Radiant Temperature:**
 - * **Kinetic Temperature (T_{kin}):** The actual internal heat of an object (what you'd measure with a thermometer).
 - **Radiant Temperature (T_{rad}):** The temperature the sensor "sees" based on emitted energy.
- **Emissivity (ϵ):** Not all objects emit heat perfectly. Emissivity is a value between 0 and 1 that describes how efficiently an object radiates energy. For example, water has a high emissivity (≈ 0.99), while polished metals have very low emissivity.

2. Types of Thermal Sensors

Because these sensors measure heat, they must often be **cryogenically cooled** (sometimes down to -200°C or lower) so that the heat from the sensor's own electronics doesn't interfere with the data.

Sensor Type	Common Platforms	Purpose
TIRS (Thermal Infrared Sensor)	Landsat 8 & 9	Water management and agricultural monitoring.
ASTER	Terra Satellite	High-resolution mapping of surface temperature and emissivity.
MODIS	Terra & Aqua	Global monitoring of wildfires and sea surface temperatures.
AVHRR	NOAA Satellites	Large-scale weather patterns and sea surface monitoring.

3. Key Applications

Thermal remote sensing allows us to "see" processes that are invisible to the naked eye, even in total darkness.⁷

- **Agriculture:** Detecting "evapotranspiration" to see which crops are thirsty before they physically wilt.
- **Urban Heat Islands:** Mapping how concrete and asphalt in cities trap heat compared to rural areas.⁸
- **Disaster Management:** Identifying "hotspots" in forest fires through thick smoke and monitoring volcanic activity.⁹

- **Oceanography:** Measuring **Sea Surface Temperature (SST)**, which is critical for tracking climate change and El Niño events.¹⁰
- **Energy Audits:** Detecting heat leaks from buildings or industrial pipelines.¹¹

4. Why Use Thermal Instead of Optical?

1. **Day & Night Capability:** Since they measure emitted heat, they work perfectly in the dark.
2. **Moisture Detection:** Wet objects cool down differently than dry ones, making thermal sensors great for finding leaks or mapping soil moisture.
3. **Subsurface Insights:** They can sometimes detect underground coal fires or geothermal heat sources that have no visible signature.

Would you like me to explain the specific physics laws (like Wien's Law or the Stefan-Boltzmann Law) that these sensors use to calculate temperature?

Prompt 2: Components of thermal sensors in remote sensing

A thermal sensor in remote sensing is a complex system designed to capture weak heat signals and translate them into digital temperature maps.¹ Because thermal radiation is much lower in energy than visible light, the components must be highly specialized.

The typical architecture of a thermal remote sensing system consists of four primary functional blocks:

1. Optical System (Collection)²

The optics are responsible for collecting and focusing thermal infrared (TIR) radiation from the ground onto the detector.³

- **Specialized Lenses/Mirrors:** Standard glass blocks thermal radiation. Instead, lenses are made from materials like **Germanium (Ge)**, **Silicon (Si)**, or **Zinc Selenide (ZnSe)** that are transparent to infrared wavelengths.
 - **Spectral Filters:** These act as "gatekeepers," only allowing specific wavelengths (typically **3–5 μm** or **8–14 μm**) to pass through while blocking unwanted solar reflection.
 - **Scanning Mechanism (for Scanners):** In older or across-track systems, a rotating mirror sweeps the ground, directing light from a small area (IFOV) to the detector.⁴
-

2. The Thermal Detector (Conversion)

This is the "heart" of the sensor, where photons are converted into electrical signals.⁵ There are two main technologies:

- **Quantum (Photon) Detectors:** These use semiconductor materials like **Mercury Cadmium Telluride (HgCdTe)** or **Quantum Well Infrared Photodetectors (QWIPs)**.⁶ They are extremely fast and sensitive but usually require intense cooling.
- **Thermal Detectors (Microbolometers):** These measure the physical change in resistance as the detector material heats up.⁷ They are often "uncooled" and are common in drones or handheld cameras.

3. Cooling System (Noise Reduction)

Because the sensor itself has a temperature, its own electronics emit "heat noise" that can drown out the signal from Earth.

- **Cryocoolers:** High-end satellite sensors (like Landsat's TIRS) use mechanical cryocoolers to chill the detector to extreme temperatures—often as low as 4 K (-230°C).¹¹
- **Passive Radiators:** These use the cold vacuum of space to radiate away excess heat from the instrument housing.

4. Onboard Calibration System

To ensure the data is accurate, the sensor must "check itself" regularly.

- **Internal Blackbodies:** Most sensors carry an internal "blackbody" source—an object with a known, stable temperature. The sensor looks at this blackbody between scans to recalibrate its temperature readings.
- **Deep Space Look:** Occasionally, the sensor points toward deep space (3 K) to establish a "zero" baseline for thermal radiation.¹³

5. Signal Processing & Data Acquisition

Once the detector creates an electrical pulse, this component takes over:

- **Analog-to-Digital Converter (ADC):** Converts the electrical voltage into a digital number (DN).
- **Processing Unit:** Applies algorithms to correct for atmospheric interference (like water vapor) and converts the raw data into **Radiant Temperature**.¹⁴

[Image showing the functional block diagram of a thermal infrared remote sensing system including optics, detector, cooling, and calibration]

Prompt 3: Significance of thermal sensors and their advantages in remote sensing

Thermal sensors are critical in remote sensing because they detect emitted infrared radiation (3–14 μm) from objects rather than just reflected sunlight. This allows for the measurement of "kinetic" or true surface temperatures, providing data that optical sensors cannot capture.

Significance of Thermal Sensors

Thermal sensors are essential for understanding Earth's energy and water cycles through several key functions:

- **Surface Temperature Retrieval:** They calculate Land Surface Temperature (LST) and Sea Surface Temperature (SST), which are vital variables for climate modeling and weather forecasting.
- **Thermal Anomaly Detection:** They identify "hot spots" caused by forest fires, active volcanoes, geothermal energy sources, or underground coal fires.
- **Energy Flux Monitoring:** They quantify heat exchange between the ground and atmosphere, which is necessary to calculate evapotranspiration and soil moisture levels in agriculture.
- **Urban Analysis:** Thermal sensors are the primary tool for mapping **Urban Heat Islands (UHI)**, identifying how city surfaces retain more heat than rural areas.

Advantages in Remote Sensing

- **Day and Night Operation:** Unlike optical sensors, thermal sensors do not require solar illumination and can operate in total darkness. Pre-dawn imagery is often preferred as it minimizes the effects of differential solar heating.
- **Smoke and Haze Penetration:** Thermal radiation at certain wavelengths (especially 3–5 μm) can penetrate thick smoke plumes that completely obscure the ground in visible light, making them indispensable for active fire tracking.

- **Early Stress Detection in Vegetation:** They can detect crop water stress before visible signs (like wilting or yellowing) appear. Stressed plants transpire less and therefore have higher canopy temperatures.
- **Non-Invasive Subsurface Insights:** While optical light only reflects off the surface, thermal patterns can reveal subsurface conditions, such as buried steam line leaks, groundwater inflows into rivers, or moisture trapped in building walls.
- **Accurate Material Identification:** Different materials have unique **emissivity** values; thermal multispectral data can discriminate between various rock types and minerals (e.g., silicates vs. carbonates) that may look identical in visible spectra.